

Discourse Analysis (ENG523)

MCQs [Answer]

Short Questions [Question related to]

Long Questions [Question related to]

VIRTUAL UNIVERSITY OF PAKISTAN

Lecture-01 Introduction to Discourse Analysis

INTRODUCTION TO DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

A Brief Historical Overview

Discourse analysis as a whole is the work of text grammarians, working mostly with written language. Text grammarians see texts as language elements pass into together in relationships with one another that can be defined. Linguists have made a significant impact in this area. Its most important contribution has been to show the links between grammar and discourse. Discourse analysis has grown into a wide-ranging and various disciplines which find its unity in the description of language above the sentence and an interest in the contexts and cultural influences which affect language in use. It is also now, increasingly, forming an environment to research in Applied Linguistics, second language learning and teaching in particular.

British discourse analysis was greatly influenced by M. A. K. Halliday's **functional approach** to language (e.g. Halliday 1973), which in turn has connections with the Prague School of linguists. Halliday's framework emphasizes the **social functions of language and the thematic and informational** structure of speech and writing. Also important in Britain were **Sinclair and Coulthard** (1975) at the University of Birmingham, who developed a model for the description of teacher-pupil talk, based on a hierarchy of discourse units. Other similar work has dealt with doctor patient interaction, service encounters, interviews, debates and business negotiations, as well as monologues. Novel work in the British tradition has also been done on intonation in discourse. The British work has principally followed structural-linguistic criteria, on the basis of the isolation of units, and sets of rules defining well-formed sequences of discourse.

American discourse analysis has been dominated by work within the ethno methodological tradition, which emphasizes the research method of close observation of groups of people communicating in natural settings. It examines types of speech event such as storytelling, greeting rituals and verbal duels in different cultural and social settings (e.g., Gumperz and Hymes 1972). What is often called **conversation analysis** within the American tradition can also be included under the general heading of discourse analysis. In conversational analysis, the emphasis is not upon building structural models but on the close observation of the behavior of participants in talk and on patterns which persist over a wide range of natural data. The work of Goffman (1976; 1979), and Sacks, Schegloff and Jefferson (1974) is important in the study of conversational norms, turn taking, and other aspects of spoken interaction. Alongside the conversation analysts, working within the sociolinguistic tradition, Labov's investigations of oral storytelling have also contributed to a long history of interest in narrative discourse. The American work has produced a large number of descriptions of discourse types, as well as insights into the social constraints of politeness and face-preserving phenomena in talk, overlapping with British work in pragmatics.

Form and Function

According to McCarthy (1991), discourse analysis describes the language above the sentence: its context and the cultural influence, which affect language in use. A discourse carries much more than its form, it also carries its own particular function, which means that there is not necessarily one-to-one relationship between a given supra-segmental choice and a meaning, hence form and function might be analyzed separately in order to depict the real meaning of a discourse. According to Halliday (1970), intonation plays a crucial role in conveying meaning. If the intonation of a sentence is changed, its meaning will also be changed. Thus, the particular way the sentences are produced and carry their individual meaning, and the analysis must go far beyond sentences forms in order to be possible to depict the real meaning of the spoken interaction.

The famous British comedy duo, Eric Morecambe and Ernie Wise, started one of their shows in 1973 with the following dialogue:

Ernie: Tell me about the show.

Eric (to the audience): Have we got a show for you might folks!

Have we got a show for you! (Aside to Ernie) Have we got a Show for them?

This short dialogue raises a number of problems for anyone wishing to do a linguistic analysis of it; not least is the question of why it is funny (the audience laughed at Eric's question to Ernie). Most people would agree that it is funny because Eric is playing with a grammatical structure that seems to be ambiguous: 'Have we got a show for you!' has an inverted verb and subject. Inversion of the verb and its subject happens only under restricted conditions in English; the most typical circumstances in which this happens is when questions are being asked, but it also happens in exclamations (e.g. Wasn't my face red!). So Eric's repeated grammatical **form** clearly experiences a change in how it is **interpreted** by the audience between its second and third occurrence in the dialogue. Eric's inverted grammatical **form** in its first two occurrences clearly has the **function** of an exclamation, *telling* the audience something, not asking them anything, until the humorous moment when he begins to doubt whether they do have a show to offer, at which point he uses the *same* grammatical form to ask Ernie a genuine question. There seems, then, to be a lack of one-to-one correspondence between grammatical form and communicative function; the inverted form *in itself* does not inherently carry an exclamatory or a questioning function. By the same token, in other situations, an uninverted declarative form (subject before verb), typically associated with 'statements', might be heard as a question requiring an answer.

Eric and Ernie's conversation is only one example (and a rather crazy one at that) of spoken interaction; most of us in a typical week will observe or take part in a wide range of different types of spoken interaction: phone calls, buying things in shops, perhaps an interview for a job, or with a doctor, or with an employer, talking formally at meetings or in classrooms, informally in cafes or on buses, or closely with our friends and loved ones. These situations will have their own formulae and conventions which we follow; they will have different ways of opening and closing the encounter, different role relationships, different purposes and different settings. Discourse

analysis is interested in all these different factors and tries to account for them in a difficult fashion with a separate set of descriptive labels from those used by conventional grammarians. The first fundamental distinction we have noted is between language forms and discourse functions; once we have made this distinction a lot of other conclusions can follow, and the labels used to describe discourse need not clash at all with those we are all used to in grammar. They will in fact complement and enrich each other. Chapters 2,3 and 4 of this book will therefore be concerned with examining the relationships between language forms (grammatical, lexical and phonological ones), and discourse functions, for it is language forms, above all, which are the raw material of language teaching, while the overall aim is to enable learners to use language functionally.

Reader Activity 1

Form and function

Can you create a context and suggest an intonation for the forms in the left-hand column so that they would be heard as performing the functions in the right-hand column, **without changing their grammatical structure?**

- | | | |
|--------------------------------|---------------|------------------|
| 1. Did I make a fool of myself | (a) question | (b) exclamation? |
| 2. You don't love me | (a) question | (b) statement |
| 3. You eat it | (a) statement | (b) command |
| 4. Switch the light on | (a) command | (b) question |

Text and Interpretation

Markers of various kinds, i.e., the linguistic signals of semantic and discourse functions (e.g., in English the –ed on the verb is a marker of pastness), are very much concerned with the surface of the text. Cohesive markers are no exception: they create links across sentence boundaries and pair and chain together items that are related (e.g., by referring to the same entity). But reading a text is far more complex than that: we have to interpret the ties and make sense of them. Making sense of a text is an act of interpretation that depends as much on what we as reader bring to a text as what the author puts into it. Interpretation can be seen as a set of procedures and the approach to the analysis of texts that emphasizes the mental activities involved in interpretation can be broadly called procedural. Procedural approaches emphasize the role of the reader in actively building the world of the text, based on his/her experience of the world and how states and events are characteristically manifested in it. The reader has to activate such knowledge, make inferences and constantly access his/her interpretation in the light of the situation and the aims and goals of the text as the reader perceives them. The work of De Beaugrande and Dressler (1981) is central to this approach. If we take a text which is cohesive in the sense described

Above, we can see that a lot more mental work has to go on for the reader to make it coherent:

**The parents of a seven-year-old Australian boy woke
me find a giant python crushing and trying to
swallow him.**

**The incident occurred in Cairns, Queensland
and the boy's mother, Mrs. Kathy Dryden
said: 'It was like a horror movie. It was a hot**

night and Bartholomew was lying under a mosquito net. He suddenly started screaming. 'We rushed to the bedroom to find a huge snake trying to repress him. It was coiled around his arms and neck and was going down his body. Mrs. Dryden and her husband, Peter, tried to stab the creature with knives but the python bit the boy several times before escaping.

This text requires us to activate our knowledge of pythons as dangerous creatures which may threaten human life, which strangle their prey and to whose presence one must react with certain urgency. More than this we make the cognitive link between 'a hot night' (this is implicit in the text). The boy's screaming must be taken to be a consequence of the python attacking him (rather than, say, prior to the arrival of the python). The 'creature' must be taken to be the Python rather than the boy (which 'creature' could well refer to in another text) since parents do not normally stab their children in order to save their lives.

Another level of interpretation which we are involved in as we process texts is that of recognizing **textual pattern**. Certain patterns in text reoccur time and time again and become deeply embedded as part of our cultural knowledge. These patterns are manifested in regularly occurring functional relationships between bits of the text. These bits may be phrases, clauses, sentences or groups of sentences; we shall refer to them as textual segments to avoid confusion with grammatical elements and syntactic relations within clauses and sentences. A segment may sometimes be a clause, sometimes a sentence, sometimes a whole paragraph; what is important is that segments can be isolated using a set of labels covering a finite set of functional relations that can occur between any two bits of text.

An example of segments coinciding with sentences is these two sentences from a report on a photographic exhibition:

**The stress is on documentary and rightly so.
Arty photographs are a bore.**

The interpretation that makes most senses is that the relationship between the second sentence and the first is that the second provides a *reason* for the first. The two segments are therefore in a *phenomenon reason* relationship with one another.

ENG523 – Bitcoin by Maha Malik

TYPES OF DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

Spoken Discourse

One influential approach to the study of spoken discourse is that it was developed at the University of Birmingham, where research initially concerned itself with the structure of discourse in school classrooms (Sinclair and Coulthard 1975). The Birmingham model is certainly not the only valid approach to analyzing discourse, but it is a relatively simple and powerful model which has connections with the study of speech acts. At the same time, it tries to capture the larger structures, the 'wholes'.

A characterization of spoken discourse requires a specification of the very different contexts of utterance which obtain in the production and reception of spoken and written discourse. These configurations largely motivate the different properties of spoken and written discourse, even allowing for equivalence of register and formality. Speech prototypically involves face-to-face interaction between two or more participants who share a spatio-temporal environment.

This, together with a common cultural and personal background in the case of conversationalists who know each other well, provides a rich contextual common ground allowing the speaker to avoid having to verbalize a number of aspects of his or her message. Simultaneously, this common ground enables the discourse participants to rely to a large extent on non-verbal signaling, in side with and even, on occasion, in place of, the verbal textualization of a given utterance. Planning time, as well as “understanding” time, is naturally minimal and at a premium – and a great many features of spontaneous speech flow from this key factor. Moreover, both speech and writing are normally designed by the user so as to be readily understood by the addressee (cf. the notion of “recipient design”).

Indeed, according to Clark (1996) and other linguists, conversation and communication in general is a fundamentally joint activity, involving the active participation of the interlocutors and the coordination of their actions (verbal as well as non-verbal). What I have just (very briefly) characterized is of course the prototypical instance of spoken interaction. There are obviously other less prototypical types of spoken discourse: for example, speaking on the telephone, where the participants share a time frame (adjusting for time zone differences when the call is international), but not a spatial one, where only two participants are involved, and where the communication is ‘ear-to-ear’ rather than face-to-face (no non-vocal gestures or visual percepts are possible): see Drummond & Hopper (1991) for a discussion of miscommunication over the telephone; and speaking in a formal situation (a speech, lecture and so forth) in front of a group of people in circumstances where convention does not normally allow for verbal exchange and interaction.

Written discourse, on the other hand, there is by definition has no common spatiotemporal ground between the writer and their reader(s). Since this is the case, and since inevitably there will be little

or no opportunity to use non-verbal signals, the text used will need to be relatively explicit - since the textual input is confined to the verbal content, in conjunction with punctuation and various graphic devices. The much greater availability, in principle, of planning time allows the writer to review and to amend their written production.

The context of spoken discourse, the distinction between text and discourse, and their roles in understanding

It is useful in analyzing spoken (as well as written) discourse understanding to draw a three-way distinction between the dimensions of text, discourse and context.

Text, discourse and context **Text:** the connected sequence of verbal signs and non-verbal signals in terms of which discourse is co-constructed by the participants in the act of communication. **Discourse:** the hierarchically structured, situated sequence of indexical, propositional, utterance and illocutionary acts carried out in pursuance of some communicative goal, as integrated within a given context.

The **context** is subject to an ongoing process of construction and revision as the discourse unfolds. It is through the invocation of a relevant context (which is partly determined by the nature of the co-text at issue, as well as by its genre) that the hearer or reader is able to convert the connected sequence of textual cues that is text into discourse. (Extract (slightly amended) from Cornish, 2003:3).

The notion of text is close to what Gumperz (1992: 234) calls “contextualization cues”. The discourse partners make use of this record (a dual-track one, according to Clark, 1996), in conjunction with their invocation of a relevant context in cognitive terms, in order to create discourse.

Discourse, on the other hand, refers to the hierarchically-structured, mentally represented product of the sequences of utterance, propositional, illocutionary and indexical acts which the participants are carrying out as the communication takes place. The crucial point about this distinction is that discourse is a (re-)constructive, and therefore highly probabilistic enterprise:

from the addressee’s perspective, it is by no means a question of simply directly decoding the text in order to arrive at the fully fledged message originally intended by the addressor. Indeed, the addressee actively contributes both to the text and to the discourse via their phatic signals, indications of (mis)understanding, and other reactions to the speaker’s moves. ‘Meaning’ does not lie “in” the text, it has to be constructed by the addressee (and the speaker!) via the text and an appropriate context (cf. Coupland et al., 1991: 5). In any case, the text is often, if not always, both incomplete and indeterminate in relation to the discourse which may be derived from it in conjunction with a context.

Written Discourse

With written texts, some of the problems associated with spoken transcripts are absent: we do not have to contend with people all speaking at once, the writer has usually had time to think about what to say and how to say it, and the sentences are usually well formed in a way that the utterances of natural, spontaneous talk are not. But the overall questions remain the same: what norms or rules do people adhere to when creating written texts?

Are texts structured according to recurring principles, is there a hierarchy of units comparable to acts, moves and exchanges, and are there conventional ways of opening and closing texts? As with spoken discourse, if we do find such regularities, and if they can be shown as elements that have different realizations in different languages, or that they may present problems for learners in other ways, then the insights of written discourse analysis might be applicable, in specifiable ways, to language teaching.

Later on, in the lesson of “discourse analysis and grammar”, we shall consider some grammatical regularities observable in well-formed written texts, and how the structuring of sentences has implications for units such as paragraphs, and for the progression of whole texts. We shall also look at how the grammar of English offers a limited set of options for creating surface links between the clauses and sentences of a text, otherwise known as cohesion. Basically, most texts display links from sentence to sentence in terms of grammatical features such as pronominalization, ellipsis (the omission of otherwise expected elements because they are retrievable from the previous text or context) and conjunction of various kinds (see Halliday and Hasan 1976).

The resources available for grammatical cohesion can be listed finitely and compared across languages for translatability and distribution in real texts. Texts displaying such cohesive features are easy to find, such as this one on telephones:

Activity

If you'd like to give someone a phone for Christmas, there are *plenty* to choose from. *Whichever* you go for, if *it's* to be used on the BT [British Telecom] network, make sure *it's* approved - look for the label with a green circle to confirm *this*. Phones labelled with a red triangle are prohibited. (Which? December 1989: 599)

The italicized items are all interpretable in relation to items in previous sentences. *Plenty* is assumed to mean 'plenty of phones'; you in the first and second sentence are interpreted as the same 'you*'; *whichever* is interpreted as 'whichever telephone'; it is understood as the telephone, and this as 'the fact that it is approved'. These are features of grammatical cohesion, but there are lexical clues too: go for is a synonym of choose, and there is lexical repetition of phone, and of label.

Notice that, when talking of cohesion in the telephone text, we spoke of interpreting items and understanding them. This is important because the cohesive items are clues or signals as to how the text should be read, they are not absolutes. The pronoun it only gives us the information that a non-human entity is being referred to; it does not necessarily tell us which one.

It could potentially have referred to Christmas in the phone text, but that would have produced an incoherent reading of the text. So, cohesion is only a guide to coherence, and coherence is something created by the reader in the act of reading the text. Coherence is the feeling that a text hangs together, that it makes sense, and is not just a jumble of sentences (see Neubauer 1983: 7).

The sentences 'Clare loves potatoes. She was born in Ireland.' are cohesive (Clarelshe), but are only coherent, if one already shares the stereotype ethnic association between being Irish and loving potatoes, or is prepared to assume a cause-effect relationship between the two sentences. So cohesion is only pan of coherence in reading and writing, and indeed in spoken language too, for the same processes operate there.

What is Meant by Discourse Analysis and What to Analyze in a Written Discourse?

As McCarthy, M. (1991) summarized, when most linguists' major concerns were still with analyzing the structure of sentences, Zellig Harris published his paper entitled Discourse Analysis in 1952, in which he showed interests in the linguistic element's distribution in extended texts. Although what he studied was different from the discourse analysis studied today, more and more scholars, either of linguistics or of other disciplines, began to involve themselves in relevant studies.

It was from all those studies in 1960s and 1970s, that that discourse analysis, which "is concerned with the study of the relationship between language and the contexts in which it is used" (McCarthy, M. 1991P5), developed into "a wide-ranging and heterogeneous discipline, which finds its unity in the description of language above the sentence and an interest in the contexts and cultural influences which affect language in use" (McCarthy, M.1991 P7). In addition to M.A.K. Halliday's functional approach to language, Sinclair and Coulthard at the University of Birmingham were as important and influential to the development of Discourse Analysis in Britain (McCarthy, M.1991). Michael Hoey also contributed his own understanding of discourse. He roughly summarized discourse as any stretch of spoken or written language, longer than one sentence, which is self-contained in a reasonable way. Therefore, Hoey argued that "discourse analysis is the area of linguistics that concerns itself with the study of these multiutterance acts of communication." (Hoey, M.1991)

Larger Pattern in Text

The clause-relational approach to text also concerns itself with larger patterns which regularly occur in texts. If we consider a simple text like the following, which is pretend for the sake of

illustration, we can see a pattern emerging which is found in hundreds of texts in a wide variety of subject areas and contexts:

Activity

Most people like to take a camera with them when they travel abroad. But all airports nowadays have X-ray security screening and X rays can damage film. One solution to this problem is to purchase a specially designed lead-lined pouch. These are cheap and can protect film from all but the strongest X rays.

The first sentence presents us with a situation and the second sentence with some sort of complication or problem. The third sentence describes a response to the problem and the final sentence gives a positive evaluation of the response. Such a sequence of relations forms a problem-solution pattern, and problem-solution patterns are extremely common in texts.

These larger patterns which may be found in texts (and indeed which may constitute the whole text) are the objects of interpretation by the reader, just as the smaller clause-relation were, and in the same way, are often signaled by the same sorts of grammatical and lexical devices such as subordination and parallelism. In our concocted text, we have a conjunction (but) indicating an adversative relation backward lexical reference to 'this problem' (damage caused by X rays)-and a forward reference to the solution (lead-lined pouches k) , Both reader and writers need to be aware of these signaling devices and to be able to use them when necessary to process textual relations that are immediately obvious and to compose text that assists the reader in the act of interpretation. The larger patterns such as the problem-solution pattern are culturally ingrained, but they are often realized in a sequence of textual segments which is not so straightforward as our concocted text suggests.

The sequence situation-problem-response-evaluation may be varied, but we do normally expect all the elements to be present in a well-formed text; where the sequence is varied, signaling plays an even more important part in signposting the text, that is, showing the reader a way round it. We have seen in this chapter that discourse analysis is a vast subject area within linguistics, encompassing as it does the analysis of spoken and written language over and above concerns such as the structure of the clause or sentence. In this brief introduction we have looked at just some ways of analyzing speech and writing and just some aspects of those particular models.

Lecture-02 Two Strands of Discourse Analysis

SPOKEN LANGUAGE-I

Spoken language is a vast subject, and little is known in hard statistical terms of the distribution of different types of speech in people's everyday lives. If we list at random a number of different types of speech and consider how much of each day or week, we spend engaged in each one, we can only roughly guess at some level of frequency ranking, other than to say that casual conversation is almost certainly the most frequent for most people.

The rest will depend on our daily occupation and what sorts of contacts we have with others. Some different types of speech might be:

Telephone calls (business and private)

Interviews (jobs, journalistic, in official settings)

Classroom (classes, seminars, lectures, tutorials)
 Rituals (church prayers, sermons, and weddings)
 Monologues (speeches, stories, jokes)
 Language-in-action (talk accompanying **doing**: fixing, cooking, assembling and demonstrating, etc.)
 Casual conversation (strangers, friends, intimates)
 Organizing and directing people (work, home, in the street)

Adjacency pairs

An **adjacency pair** is a unit of conversation that contains an exchange of one turn each by two speakers. The turns are functionally related to each other in such a fashion that the first turn requires a certain type or range of types of second turn.

Pairs of utterances in talk are often mutually dependent; a most obvious example is that a question predicts an answer, and that an answer presupposes a question. It is possible to state the requirements, in a normal conversational sequence, for many types of utterances, in terms of what is expected as a response and what certain responses presuppose.

Some examples might be:

<i>Utterance function</i>	<i>Expected response</i>
Greeting	greeting
Congratulation	thanks
Apology	acceptance
Inform	acknowledge
Leave-taking	leave-taking

Pairs of utterances such as greeting-greeting and apology-acceptance are called **adjacency pairs**. Adjacency pairs are of different types. Some ritualized first pair-parts may have an identical second pair-part (hello - hello, happy New Year – happy New Year), while others expect a different second pair-part (congratulations - thanks).

Equally, a second pair-part such as thanks will presuppose quite a wide range of first pair-parts (offers, apologies, informing moves, congratulations, commiserations, etc.). We can segment the polite refusal of the invitation into **appreciation** ('thanks very much'), **softener** ('I'm afraid'), **reason** ('I'm booked up') and **face-saver** ('what about ...'). This pattern would typically be found between adult friends, colleagues, etc. in informal but polite situations.

More friendly situations may well omit the 'softener'. Each of these elements will have several possible realizations, and these can be practiced in language learning in a systematic way. Different roles and settings will generate different structures for such adjacency pairs, and discourse analysts try to observe in natural data just what patterns occur in particular settings.

Similarly, it seems that native speakers usually preface **disagreement** second pair-parts in English with partial agreement ('yes, but...') and with softeners (Pearson 1986). This sort of observation has direct implications for the design of role play and similar activities and what linguistic elements need to be pre-taught, where learners are instructed to behave in ways specified by the activity and where the goal is a simulation of 'real life' discourse.

The principle of adjacency pairs and how they are realized in natural speech point to the importance of creating minimal contexts in the teaching of common communicative functions and the limited value of teaching single utterances. We have seen once again that the structure and elaboration of the adjacency pair is determined by role and setting, and that the functions of its component utterances depend on the co-presence of both parts. **Exchanges**

An **exchange** is a sequence of **discourse** moves by at least two speakers that forms a topical (or sub topical unit). A minimal **exchange** comprises an initiating move plus a contribution by another speaker.

There are two classes of exchanges; boundary exchanges and teaching exchanges (Sinclair and Coulthard, 1992, pg.25). Boundary exchanges contain two moves, **framing and focusing** moves. The only three principals of teaching exchanges described by Sinclair and Coulthard are informing, directing, and eliciting exchanges (1992, pg.26-27). Sinclair and Coulthard state that, "A typical exchange in the classroom consists of an initiation by the teacher, followed by a response from the pupil, followed by feedback; to the pupil's response from the teacher..." (1992, pg.3).

Let us have a look the teaching exchanges separately to illustrate how each one is structured.

○ **Information Exchange**

Informing exchanges take place when the teacher needs to tell his/her students about new information, facts, or just simply say something to them. The opening move will therefore begin with an informative act but does not necessarily need to be followed by a reply by the students (Sinclair and Coulthard, 1992, pg.26). For instance,

A group of people used **symbols** to do their writing. They used pictures Instead of, as we write, in words. (Willis, 1992, pg.112)

Response from the student is optional, and therefore Sinclair and Coulthard label the structure of this exchange as I(R), whereas the aspect in brackets is optional, meaning there is an option for a response but not any feedback (1992, pg.26).

○ **Directing Exchange**

A directing exchange is "...designed to get the pupils to do but not to say something" (Sinclair and Coulthard, 1992, pg.26). Therefore, the response from the students is the 'doing' part, which will

most likely but not always be a non-verbal response. Even though it is non-verbal, the students respond to the direction the teacher has given.

○ Eliciting Exchange

The most common exchange in the classroom is an eliciting exchange (Willis, 1992, pg.113). These exchanges begin with the teacher asking a question (usually one they already know the answer to). An answer is then given by the student, and finally a follow-up evaluation by the teacher. (Hellermann, 2003, pg.80). Here is an example from the study done by Sinclair and Coulthard.

Teaching exchanges can be further divided into eleven sub-categories; six 'free' and five 'bound' exchanges (Sinclair & Coulthard, 1975, p. 49). Bound exchanges are tied to previous free exchanges, which they refer back to. These sub-categories can be defined below, which are based on Raine (2010, p. 7).

Table 1: Sub-categories of free exchange

Sub-class of exchange	Structures	Function of exchange
Teacher inform (Inform)	I (R)	to convey information to the pupils
Teacher direct (Direct)	I R (F)	to elicit a non-verbal response from the pupils
Teacher elicit (Elicit)	I R F	to elicit a verbal response from a pupil
Check (Check)	I R (F)	to discover how well students are getting on and identify any problems
Pupil elicit (P-Elicit)	I R	to elicit a verbal response from the teacher
Pupil inform (P-Inform)	I F	to convey information to the teacher.

Table 2: Sub-categories of bound exchange

Sub-class of exchange	Structures	Function of exchange
Re-initiation (i) (Re-initiation)	I R Ib R F	to induce a response to a previously unanswered question

Re-initiation (ii) (Re-initiation)	I R F (Ib) R F	to induce a correct response to a previously incorrectly answered elicitation
Listing (Listing)	I R F (Ib) R F	to withhold evaluation until two or more responses are received to an elicitation
Reinforce (Reinforce)	I R Ib R	to induce a (correct) response to a previously issued directive
Repeat (Repeat)	I R Ib R F	to induce a repetition of a response

Turn-taking

A **turn** is the time when a speaker is talking and **turn-taking** is the skill of knowing when to start and finish a **turn** in a **conversation**. It is an important organizational tool in spoken **discourse**. One way that speakers signal a finished **turn** is to drop the pitch or volume of their voice at the end of an utterance.

The rules regarding turn-taking in formal situations can differ markedly than between people who are speaking casually together.

Etiquette calls interrupting someone else rude behavior and unfitting for people in refined society. Emily Post's book of etiquette goes beyond this to describe the importance of listening and responding to the correct topic as being part of good manners when participating in any form of conversation. "By waiting your turn to speak and avoiding interrupting another person, you not only show your desire to work together with the other members of your society, you also show respect for your fellow members."

There are two guiding principles in conversations:

1. Only one person should talk at a time.
2. We cannot have silence.

The transition between one speaker and the next must be as smooth as possible and without a break. We have different ways of indicating that a turn will be changed:

- **Formal methods:** for example, selecting the next speaker by name or raising a hand.
- **Adjacency pairs:** for instance, a question requires an answer.
- **Intonation:** for instance, a drop in pitch or in loudness.
- **Gesture:** for instance, a change in sitting position or an expression of inquiry.
- The most important device for indicating turn-taking is through a change in **gaze direction**.

Interruptions in a conversation are violations of the turn-taking rule.

- Interruption: where a new speaker interrupts and gains the floor.
- Butting in: where a new speaker tries to gain the floor but does not succeed. □
- Overlaps: where two speakers are talking at the same time.

Responses such as mmmm and yeah are known as **minimal responses**. These are not interruptions but rather are devices to show the listener is listening, and they assist the speaker to continue. They are especially important in telephone conversations where the speaker cannot see the listener's eyes and hence must rely on verbal cues to tell whether the listener is paying attention.

SPOKEN LANGUAGE-II

Transactions and topics

A **transactional** encounter is one where you're going through the motions to get the task or the **discourse** done. Talk as transaction refers to situations where the focus is on what is said or done. The message and making oneself understood clearly and accurately is the central focus, rather than the participants and how they interact socially with each other.

In such transactions, Jones suggests, "Talk is associated with other activities. For example, students may be engaged in hands-on activities (e.g., in a science lesson) to explore concepts associated with floating and sinking. In this type of spoken language students and teachers usually focus on meaning or on talking their way to understanding." (Jones 1996:14)

Examples of talk as transaction are:

- Classroom group discussions and problem-solving activities
- A class activity during which students design a poster
- Discussing needed computer repairs with a technician
- Discussing sightseeing plans with a hotel clerk or tour guide
- Making a telephone call to obtain flight information
- Asking someone for directions on the street
- Buying something in a shop
- Ordering food from a menu in a restaurant

Burns (1998) distinguishes between two different types of talk as transaction. The first type involves situations where the focus is on giving and receiving information and where the participants focus primarily on what is said or achieved (e.g., asking someone for directions). Accuracy may not be a priority, as long as information is successfully communicated or understood. The second type is transactions that focus on obtaining goods or services, such as checking into a hotel or ordering food in a restaurant.

The main features of talk as transaction are:

- It has a primarily information focus.
- The main focus is on the message and not the participants.
- Participants employ communication strategies to make them understood.
- There may be frequent questions, repetitions, and comprehension checks, as in the example from the preceding classroom lesson. □ There may be negotiation and digression.
- Linguistic accuracy is not always important.

Some of the skills involved in using talk for transactions are:

- Explaining a need or intention
- Describing something
- Asking questions
- Asking for clarification
- Confirming information
- Justifying an opinion
- Making suggestions
- Clarifying understanding
- Making comparisons
- Agreeing and disagreeing

Transaction is part of a conversation which can achieve certain communicative functions or topics. Class conversation, business conversation, telephone conversation, etc. can be divided into several transactions according to different purpose and development, such as lecture transaction, business transaction, telephone transaction, etc. In addition, students can be divided into groups or pairs to play roles in telephone conversation, visiting conversation and business conversation, etc. For more complicated transaction training, students could narrate or comment

according to different structures of text, such as, narrate (personal experience, tales, and jokes, etc), descript(subjects), exposit (how to operate), persuade (not smoking) and argue.

Interactional and transactional talk

When you talk to people, are you focused on the **transaction** or your **interaction**? A **transactional encounter** is one where you're going through the motions to get the task or the discourse done. ... **Interaction** occurs when two people are engaged in a dialogue or actively participating in the process. **Interactional language** is the **language** we use to build and maintain relationships. It can be compared to **transactional language**, which normally carries a message and is the **language** used to get things done, to maintain **interaction**, speakers use **interactional strategies**.

In the linear model, the sender communicates to the receiver. It is a one-way channel. The examples **in the book** are radio and television broadcasting. **In the transactional model** there are two people communicating to one another simultaneously.

Small talk and conversation are examples of interactional talk, which refers to communication that primarily serves the purpose of social interaction. Small talk consists of short exchanges that usually begin with a greeting, move to back-and-forth exchanges on non-controversial topics, such as the weekend, the weather, work, school, etc. and then often conclude with a fixed expression, such as *See you later*. Such interactions are at times almost formulaic and often do not result in a real conversation. They serve to create a positive atmosphere and to create a comfort zone between people who might be total strangers.

Skills involved in mastering small talk include:

- Acquiring fixed expressions and routines used in small talk.
- Using formal or casual speech depending on the situation.
- Developing fluency in making small talk around predictable topics.
- Using opening and closing strategies.
- **Using back-channeling.** [SEP] Back-channeling involves the use of expressions such as *really, mm, is that right? yeah*, etc., nodding of the head, and, very commonly, short rhetorical questions, such as *Do you? Are you? or Did you?* Such actions and expressions reflect the role of an active, interested and supportive listener.

One of the most important aspects of conversation is managing the flow of conversation around topics. Whereas topics are only lightly touched on in small talk, as we noted above, conversation involves a joint interaction around topics and the introduction of new topics that are linked through each speaker's contributions. The skills involved include: □ Initiating a topic in casual and formal conversation.

- Selecting vocabulary appropriate to the topic. □ Giving appropriate feedback responses.

Providing relevant evaluative comments through back-channeling.

- Taking turns at appropriate points in the conversation.
- Asking for clarification and repetition.
- Using discourse strategies for repairing misunderstanding.
- Using discourse strategies to open and close conversations.
- Using appropriate intonation and stress patterns to express meaning. Learners need a wide range of topics at their disposal in order to manage the flow of conversation, and managing interaction and developing topic fluency is a priority in speaking classes. Another important communication skill is the ability to use English to accomplish different kinds of transactions. A transaction is an interaction that focuses on getting something done, rather than maintaining social interaction. (In communicative language teaching, transactions are generally referred to as *functions*, and include such areas as requests, orders, offers, suggestions, etc.) A transaction may consist of a sequence of different functions. Two different kinds of transactions are often distinguished. One type refers to transactions that occur in situations where the focus is on giving and receiving information, and where the participants focus primarily on what is said or achieved (e.g. asking someone for directions or bargaining at a garage sale). The second type refers to transactions that involve obtaining goods or services, such as checking into a hotel or ordering food in a restaurant. Talk in these situations is often information- focused, is associated with specific activities and often occurs in specific situations.

The following are examples of communication of this kind:

- Ordering food in a restaurant.
- Ordering a taxi.
- Checking into a hotel.
- Changing money at a bank.
- Getting a haircut.
- Buying something in a store.
- Borrowing a book from the library.

The skills involved in using English for transactions include:

- Selecting vocabulary related to particular transactions and functions.
- Using fixed expressions and routines.
- Expressing functions.
- Using scripts for specific transactions and situations.
- Asking and answering questions.
- Clarifying meanings and intentions.
- Confirming and repeating information.
- Using communication strategies.

Idea Theory of Meaning

"Story" refers to the actual sequence of events in a **narrative**; discourse refers to the manipulation of that **story** in the presentation of the **narrative**. These terms refer; then, to the basic

structure of all **narrative** form. It's important in your own communications with members to subtly refer to different elements in the **community narrative**. A **narrative** is a powerful tool that unites communities. It creates shared experiences, establishes agreed norms, and helps us make sense of the context/content of current actions.

The story consists of events (things that happen) and so-called existents the characters that makes things happen or have things happen to them and the setting, meaning the place where things happen. Events can be either brought about actively, in which case they are called actions (one character kills another one), or they just happen (someone dies of a heart-attack).

An **anecdote** (pronounced an-ik-doh) is a very short story that is significant to the topic at hand; usually adding personal knowledge or experience to the topic. Basically, anecdotes are stories. Like many stories, anecdotes are most often told through speech; they are spoken rather than **written down**. The term “anecdote” originally comes from the Greek phrase *ἀνέκδοτα*, meaning “things unpublished.” Types of Anecdotes can be presented in an endless number of forms.

There are several typical types of anecdotes and some are given below.

Humorous is an anecdote that adds humor to the topic at hand. **Reminiscent** a story that remembers something general about the past or a specific event, expressed in ways such as “that reminds me of...”, “when I used to...”, “I remember when...”, and so on. For example, a child asks her grandmother for \$2 to buy candy at the store, and the grandmother says, “You know back in my day, all you needed was a penny to go to the candy shop! My grandmother would give me a nickel and I’d be a happy clam!” **Philosophical** is an anecdote expressed in order to make others think more deeply about the topic at hand. **Inspirational** is an anecdote that is told in order to inspire hope or other positive emotions. They are often about not giving up, achieving goals or dreams, making the impossible possible, and so on. **Cautionary** Stories are warning others about the dangers or negative consequences surrounding the topic at hand.

At the End, anecdotes are valuable literary devices because of their **diversity** in style, tone, and **utility**—they can be used by almost any person, in any situation, in any genre. Like any story shared with others, anecdotes serve countless purposes and make situations more interesting for both the characters and the audience. An anecdote is a timeless device that is used across literature, film, television and theater, and has been benefiting storytellers for centuries.

WRITTEN LANGUAGE-I

Text Types

The notion of text type is an abstract category designed to characterize the main structure of a particular text or one of its parts according to its dominant properties. It is intended to integrate common features of historically varying genres (novella, novel, short story, etc.) and therefore to reduce the complexity of the many overlapping kinds of texts to distinct textual phenomena. In virtue of narratology's traditional focus on time, these phenomena are semantic properties that constitute the temporal character of the text (passage). Consequently, the text type 'narrative' is defined by the property 'change of state' of concrete objects and the text type 'description', accordingly, by the property 'is about states' of concrete objects.

'Text type', could be restricted to the characterization of texts according to pragmatic properties (e.g., the speaker's purpose). Therefore, any text may be used to persuade somebody. The most appropriate text type in this case (or the text type most often used in connection with the purpose to persuade) may be the text type 'argument'. The persuasive mode of discourse can be instantiated by any text type, depending on pragmatic concerns. The notion 'mode of discourse' is thus context-sensitive; that of 'text type' is not.

Another **category** that is closely related to the notion of text type is 'genre'. However, text type and genre should be kept strictly apart from each other as well. Unlike the numerous historically generated subclasses of genre (such as novel, sonnet, recipe, homepage) that have evolved by chance, typologies of text type include a limited number of different items and aim at a complete set of all possible types that can make up any text.

One important consequence that follows from this definition is that narrative as a genre is distinguished from the text type 'narrative'. The text type 'narrative' derives from the prevailing quality of texts considered to be prototypical for the genre narrative or fiction, members of which are often not pure narratives in the sense of text type. While any text that is called, say, a novel belongs to the genre narrative, probably no novel contains only the text type 'narrative'. Usually, novels exhibit all text types.

However, any experimental literary text that is called a novel belongs to the genre narrative, even if it is mainly characterized by the text type 'description'. The problem of equivocation (one term denoting different notions) occurs in every case. This can be avoided when another term is available: thus, the term 'emphases' denote a descriptive genre whereas 'description' denotes the text type usually dominating emphasis. Yet 'description' is by no means restricted to this latter use, and the term 'emphases' mainly refer to literary descriptions depicting pieces of visual art (Henkel 1997; Klarer 2005).

There are many varying classifications and typologies, each including different types (Georgakopoulou 2005). The text types 'description' and 'narrative', though, seem to be part of

almost all typologies (except for Fludernik 2000; see below, § 3.2). For example, in addition to those mentioned in the definition above, exposition and instruction are discussed as text types by Werlich (1976), van Dijk (1980) adds scientific inquiries to the list of text types, and de Beaugrande and Dressler (1981) include didactic texts. Sometimes, the notion of text type is meant to characterize entire texts, sometimes not; some authors focus on semantic features, others on pragmatic features.

Heinemann's (2000) survey of the notion of text type in linguistics shows that the linguistic typologies of texts follow the application of different criteria: grammatical properties of texts, semantic properties of texts, situational context, function, etc. This practice has brought about a huge variety of heterogeneous concepts. There is no agreement on which notion should satisfy which criteria. And, what is more, even the use of particular terms is not regular. Thus, linguists often use our term in the sense of what above was called a genre. For an extremely fine-grained classification with hundreds of genres, termed "text types," see Görlach (2004: 23–88).

Units in Written Discourse

Discourse analysts do what people in their everyday experience of language do instinctively and largely unconsciously: notice patterning's of language in use and the circumstances (participants, situations, purposes, outcomes) with which these are typically associated. The discourse analyst's particular contribution to this otherwise mundane activity is to do the noticing consciously, deliberately, systematically, and, as far as possible, objectively, and to produce accounts (descriptions, interpretations, explanations) of what their investigations have revealed.

The sentence is more obvious as a grammatical unit in writing, although certainly not in all kinds of writing: signs and notices, small ads, notes, forms, tickets all contain frequent examples of non-sentences (lists of single words, verb less clauses, etc.).

The internal construction of the sentence has always been the province of grammar. We argued that a number of things in clause and sentence grammar have implications for the discourse as a whole, in particular, word order, cohesion, and **tense** and aspect. For the purposes of our discussion of these discourse features, the sentence will have no special status other than as a grammatical and orthographic unit which can be exploited where desired for pedagogical illustration, just as the clause can.

It is possible to devise interactive activities which involve decisions on word order, cohesion and sequences of tenses in discourse such as the 'text-jigsaw' activity. It has been used successfully with groups at widely different levels to focus on bottom-up choices of these kinds. In this activity, a text is read in class, and any other desired activities carried out on it. When its content is familiar, it is then presented in jigsaw format, divided up into its individual sentences (or indeed groups of sentences or paragraphs; the decision is purely a practical one).

What this means is that one group or individual gets the text with sentences (or paragraphs) 1, 3, 5, 7, 9, etc. and has to recreate sentences 2, 4, 6, 8, etc. in their own words from their familiarity

with the content. The other group or individual gets sentences 2, 4, 6, 8, etc. and has to recreate the odd-numbered ones. When all the new sentences are ready, the sentences originally provided are discarded, the two sets of created sentences are put together to see if they make a coherent and cohesive text, and the pair or group together make any changes needed until they are satisfied with the finished product. The activity produces interesting results, as with this group of advanced learners of English.

Clause Relations

Clause-relational approach to written text stressed that the units of written discourse, rather than always being co-extensive with sentences (though they sometimes are), were best seen as functional segments (of anything from phrasal to paragraph length) which could be related to one another by a finite set of cognitive relations, such as cause-consequence, instrument-achievement, temporal sequence, and matching relations such as contrasting and equivalence. Individual segments of texts combined to form the logical structure of the whole and to form certain characteristic patterns (such as **problem-solution**). The sequencing of segments and how the relations between them are signaled were viewed as factors in textual coherence (see Winter 1977; Hoey 1983).

In fact, the problems which could be subsumed under the notion of cohesion by conjunction in the last reader activity can also be viewed from a clause-relational standpoint, in that inappropriate use of conjunctions creates difficulties for the reader in relating segments of the text to one another coherently. It is also noted that the borderline between how conjunctions signal clause relations and how certain lexical items do the same is somewhat blurred, and that conjunctions such as *and*, *so* and *because* have their lexical equivalents in nouns, verbs and adjectives such as *additional*, *cause* (as noun or verb), *consequent*, *instrumental*, *reason*, and so on. Therefore, as well as activities that focus on conjunction and other local cohesive choices, activities aimed at the lexicon of clause-relational signals may also be useful. Segment-chain activities can be used for this purpose. An opening segment (which could be a sentence or more) and a closing segment of a text are given to a group of four or five students, and each individual is given the start of a segment containing a different lexical clause signal. Individuals complete their own segment with as much text as they feel necessary, and then compare their segment with everyone else's in order to assemble the segments into a coherent text. This involves not only being satisfied with the individual segments but deciding on an appropriate sequence for the chain of clause relations that will lead logically to the given closing segment, and making any changes felt necessary to improve coherence.

ENG523 – Bitcoin by Maha Malik

WRITTEN LANGUAGE-II

Patterns and the learner

Learning patterns were originally developed in order to support **learning** of university students; however, we think it can be applied to any learners in various situations like engineering, business, science, and everyday life due to the abstract descriptions of the **pattern** language.

McCarthy (1993) states that, written discourse analysis is not a new method for teaching languages, rather it is “fundamentally different way of looking at language compared with sentence-dominated models” (p. 170). Written text (in this case, English written text) is naturally organized into several types of patterns.

Written text conforms to rules that most successful writers unconsciously follow and native readers unconsciously expect to find. Some of the characteristic patterns in written discourse analysis are the Problem/Solution structure, discussed in Hoey (1994), the Claim/Counterclaim structure covered in McCarthy (1993), and the General/Specific structure discussed in Coulthard (1994).

There could be several overall textual patterns as pointed out by Holland and Lewis (1997: 27), McCarthy (1996: 157), and Mikulecky and Jeffries (1996:295-296), **prevailing studies have reported three types of common patterns that are broadly classified as *problem-solution*, *claimcounterclaim*, and *general-specific***. The problem-solution pattern, identified by Hoey (cited in Holland and Lewis 1997:12), consists of four basic elements: *situation* (within which there is a complication or problem), *problem* (within the situation, requiring a response), *response* or *solution* (to the problem), and *evaluation* or *result* (of the response /solution).

The claim-counterclaim pattern is one where a series of claims and contrasting counterclaims is presented in relation to a given issue (Holland and Lewis 1997: 23). The pattern similar to the *hypothetical-real* (see McCarthy 1996: 80) is reported to relate to the problem-solution pattern in that “instead of presenting the ‘facts’ of a situation, it presents a ‘hypotheses about the likely facts or situation” (Winter 1998: 62). The general-specific pattern, on the other hand, is one in which a generalization is followed by more specific statements, perhaps exemplifying the generalization which analyzing and raising students’ awareness resembles the ***preview-detail relation*** of Hoey (cited in McCarthy and Carter 1994:57), and the *Listing* pattern of Mikulecky and Jeffries (1986: 103 - 137, and 1996:103 - 131).

Overall pattern is associated with certain words known as *discourse-organizing* [or *signaling*] words whose job is to organize and structure the argument (McCarthy 1996: 75), and to help a reader to locate the pattern in written text. Lists of signaling words are reported for the problemsolution pattern by Holland and Lewis (1997: 16), and McCarthy (1996: 79); for the claimcounterclaim, by Holland and Lewis (1997:26), Jordan (cited in McCarthy 1996: 80), and Winter (1998: 62 - 63); and for the general-specific, by Coulthard (1998: 7), and Mikulecky and Jeffries (1986:103, and 1996: 103).

Culture and rhetoric

“Culture is a system of beliefs, values, and assumptions about life that guide behavior and are shared by a group of people. It includes customs, language, and material artifacts. These are transmitted from generation to generation, rarely with explicit instruction.” And “Rhetoric is the art, practice and study of human communication.”

The convergence of rhetoric, culture, and communication has led to the development of two predominant areas of study within the field of communication: **intercultural rhetoric** and **comparative rhetoric**. **Intercultural rhetoric** illustrates how culture-based arguments are constructed by advocates during intercultural interactions and how the arguments make sense within a particular cultural frame or worldview. Rhetorical practices are seen as emerging from the beliefs and values of distinctive cultural communities, and the convergence of intercultural communication and rhetoric becomes evident when people act rhetorically and their diverse cultural assumptions gradually or suddenly become apparent during intercultural interactions.

Comparative rhetoric focuses on the cross-cultural study of rhetorical traditions, past or present, in societies around the world. Comparison of (rather than interaction between) the rhetorical practices of two or more cultures is often the focus of comparative rhetoric studies. Comparison helps in the identification of rhetorical features in one culture that might not be evident otherwise, to unearth what is universal and what distinctive in any rhetorical tradition, including that of the West. Intercultural rhetoric and comparative rhetoric share some conceptual and methodological features; both fields are characterized by similar beginnings and some shared debates. However, they also have distinct characteristics, challenges, and historiographies.

For intercultural rhetoric, approaching intercultural contexts and situations utilizing theories and concepts from rhetorical studies affirms non-Western modes of reasoning and encouragement. Recent methodological developments have allowed critics to more comprehensively represent rhetorical traditions and to discover novel ways to understand intercultural conflicts and mediate cultural differences. Conceptualizing rhetorical situations as intercultural dialogues suggests the ways in which intercultural rhetorical theorists need to be mindful of the multifocal quality of social discourses.

Rhetorical interpretation of texts benefits from a comparative approach that allows for speculation with respect for and grounding in another culture’s history, as well as reflection on the cultural outsider’s motive and assumptions. It is useful for the quest of meaning not to be limited to the standpoints within each disparate culture; pragmatically, they must have a dialogue since comparative rhetoric allows the analysis of different discourses, the discovery of common grounds of engagement, and the revelation of cultural assumptions.

Discourse and the reader

Discourse and reading in fact follow consistently from what we have said in this lesson and in earlier ones: we cannot explain discourse patterning at the macro-level without paying due attention to the role of grammar and lexis; by the same token, we cannot stand-in good reading without considering global and local reading skills simultaneously.

In recent years, questions of reading pedagogy have centered on whether bottom-up (i.e. decoding of the text step-by-step from small textual elements such as words and phrases) or topdown (using macro-level clues to decode the text) strategies are more important.

The debate seems to have settled, quite sensibly, on a compromise between local and global decoding, and there is 'general agreement that efficient readers use top-down and bottom-up processing simultaneously (e.g., Eskey 1988). The best reading materials will encourage an engagement with larger textual forms (for example through problem-solving exercises at the whole-text level) but not neglect the role of individual words, phrases and grammatical devices in guiding the reader around the text (e.g., Greenall and Swan 1986, who achieve a balance of both ingredients).

But at both the micro- and macro-level, attentiveness in how to introduce the discourse dimension is called for. In the case of cohesion, for **example**, the precise relationship between cohesion and coherence is unclear, and focusing on cohesive devices for reading purposes may not guarantee any better route towards a coherent interpretation of the text (see Steffensen 1988). At the macro-level, much has been made in recent years of schema theory, that is, the role of background knowledge in the reader's ability to make sense of the text.

The theory is that new knowledge can only be processed coherently in relation to existing knowledge frameworks, and that the efficient reader activates the necessary frameworks to assist in decoding the text being read. The frameworks are not only knowledge about the world (e.g. about natural phenomena, about typical sequences of real-life events and behavior), but also about texts, how texts are typically structured and organized, consequently enabling us to talk about two kinds of schemata: content and formal, respectively. The theory in itself seems conceivable enough; the more we are locked into the world of the text, the easier it is to absorb new information. It is often held that the teacher's job is to help the reader to activate the appropriate schemata. While we have already tested the value of predicting what textual patterns a given text may be going to realize in reader activity, as an awareness activity for constructing patterns in writing, it is not at all certain whether activating the right formal schema for reading can help much if the right content schema is lacking.

If the teacher's job, then becomes one of supplying the appropriate content schemata for a possibly vast number of textual encounters, then we are out of the world of discourse as such and firmly in the realm of the teaching of culture, and we are not necessarily teaching the learner any skill that will be subsequently productive. What we have already said, and what may be repeated now, is

that listening and reading have in common a positive and active role for the receiver, and, if any insight is to be taken seriously on board from discourse analysis. It is good that listeners and readers are constantly attending to the segmentation of the discourse, whether by intonational features in speech, or by orthographical features in writing, or by lexicogrammatical signals in both.

What is also clear is that good listeners and readers are always predicting what is to come, both in terms of the next few words and in terms of larger patterns such as problem-solution, narrative, and so on. This act of prediction may be in the form of precise prediction of content or a more diffuse prediction of a set of questions that the author is likely to answer. For this reason, interpreting the author's signals at the level of grammar and vocabulary as to what questions he/she is going to address is as useful as predicting, for **example**, the content of the rest of a given sentence or paragraph. This will mean paying attention to structures such as split sentences rhetorical questions, front-placing of adverbials and other markers, and any other discourse-level features. The reading text will be seen simultaneously as an artifact arising from a context and a particular set of assumptions of world knowledge, and as an unfolding message in which the writer has encoded a lot more than just content, with signposts at various stages to guide the reader around.

Lecture-03 Discourse Markers and Conversation

DISCOURSE MARKERS

Language

The production of coherent discourse is an interactive process that requires speakers to draw upon several different types of communicative knowledge that complement grammatical knowledge of sound, form, and meaning per se. Two aspects of communicative knowledge closely related to one another are *expressive* and *social*: the ability to use language to display personal and social identities, to convey attitudes and perform actions, and to negotiate relationships between self and other. Others include a *cognitive* ability to represent concepts and ideas through language and a *textual* ability to organize forms, and convey meanings, within units of language longer than a single sentence.

Discourse markers – expressions such as *oh*, *well*, *y'know*, and *but* – are one set of linguistic items that function in cognitive, expressive, social, and textual domains. Although there were scattered studies of discourse markers in the early 1980s, their study since then has abounded in various branches of linguistics and allied fields.

Functions of Discourse Markers "Laurel J. Brinton (1990) pointed out that discourse markers are used:

- to initiate discourse,
- to mark a boundary in discourse (shift/partial shift in topic),
- to preface a response or a reaction,
- to serve as a filler or delaying tactic,
- to aid the speaker in holding the floor,
- to affect an interaction or sharing between speaker and hearer,
- to bracket the discourse either cataphorically or anaphorically, - to mark either foregrounded or back grounded information."

Schiffrin's analysis of discourse markers (1987) was motivated by several concerns. From a sociolinguistic perspective, Schiffrin was interested in using methods for analyzing language that had been developed by variation theory to account for the use and distribution of forms in discourse. This interest, however, was embedded within a view of discourse not only as a unit of language but also as a process of social interaction (see Heller 2001; Schegloff, this volume). The analysis thus tried to reconcile both methodology (using both quantitative and qualitative methods) and underlying models (combining those inherited from both linguistics and sociology).

Unifying the analysis was the desire to account for the distribution of markers (which markers occurred where? why?) in spoken discourse in a way that attended to both the importance of language (what was the form? its meaning?) and interaction (what was going on – at the moment of use – in the social interaction?). Schiffrin's initial work defined discourse markers as "sequentially dependent elements which bracket units of talk" (1987a:31) – that is, nonobligatory utterance-initial items that function in relation to ongoing talk and text. She proposed that discourse

markers could be considered as a set of linguistic expressions comprising members of word classes as varied as conjunctions (e.g., *and*, *but*, *or*), interjections (e.g., *oh*), adverbs (e.g., *now*, *then*), and lexicalized phrases (e.g., *y'know*, *I mean*).

Also proposed was a discourse model with different planes: a participation framework, information state, ideational structure, action structure, and exchange structure. The specific analyses showed that markers could work at different levels of discourse to connect utterances on either a single plane or across different planes. For **example**, *because* connects actions and ideas respectively. In *because* connects a request (to complete a task) and the justification for the request.

Meaning

Misunderstanding relayed information can lead to problems, big or small. Being able to understand understated subtext to be able to “read between the lines” or distinguish between factual reporting and fake news, editorials, or propaganda all rely on being able to interpret communication. Therefore, critical analysis of what someone is saying or writing is of ultimate importance. To go a step further, to take analyzing discourse to the level of a field of study is to make it more formal, to mesh linguistics and sociology. It can even be aided by the fields of psychology, anthropology, and philosophy.

The whole object and purpose of language is to be meaningful. Languages have developed and are constituted in their present forms in order to meet the needs of communication in all its aspects.

It is because the needs of human communication are so various and so diverse that the study of meaning is probably the most difficult and baffling part of the serious study of language. Traditionally, language has been defined as the expression of thought, but this involves far too narrow an interpretation of language or far too wide a view of thought to be serviceable. The expression of thought is just one among the many functions performed by language in certain contexts.

Lexical meaning is the most important component of sentence meaning is word meaning, the individual meanings of the words in a sentence, as lexical items. It is through lexical resources that languages maintain the flexibility their open-ended commitments demand. Every language has a vocabulary of many thousands of words, though not all are in active use, and some are known only to relatively few speakers.

Perhaps the commonest misunderstanding in considering vocabularies is the assumption that the words of different languages, or at least their nouns, verbs, and adjectives, label the same inventory of things, processes, and qualities in the world but unfortunately label them with different labels from language to language. If this were so, translation would be easier than it is; but the fact that translation, though often difficult, is possible indicates that people are talking about similar worlds of experience in their various languages.

Context

Discourse refers to information which can only be interpreted by reference to context. In interpreting discourse, we also infer contextual information which is part of knowledge about the world or a particular culture. Context is about the relationship between two speakers, or between the writer of a text and its audience, and both belong to a specific time and place.

Opinions on how to classify context vary from one to another. Some linguists divide context into two groups, while some insist on discussing context from three, four, or even six dimensions. I would like to divide context into linguistic context, situational context and cultural context.

Linguistic Context

Linguistic context refers to the context within the discourse, that is, the relationship between the words, phrases, sentences and even paragraphs. Take the word “bachelor” as an example. We can’t understand the exact meaning of the sentence “He is a bachelor.” without the linguistic context to make clear the exact meaning of this word.

Linguistic context can be explored from three aspects: deictic, co-text, and collocation. In a language event, the participants must know where they are in space and time, and these features relate directly to the deictic context, by which we refer to the deictic expressions like the time expressions now, then, etc., the spatial expressions here, there, etc., and the person expressions I, you, etc... Deictic expressions help to establish deictic roles which derive from the fact that in normal language behavior the speaker addresses his utterance to another person and may refer to himself, to a certain place, or to a time.

Situational Context

Situational context, or context of situation, refers to the environment, time and place, etc. in which the discourse occurs, and also the relationship between the participants. This theory is traditionally approached through the concept of register, which helps to clarify the interrelationship of language with context by handling it under three basic headings: field, tenor, and mode. Field of discourse refers to the ongoing activity. We may say field is the linguistic reflection of the purposive role of language user in the situation in which a text has occurred. Tenor refers to the kind of social relationship enacted in or by the discourse.

The notion of tenor, therefore, highlights the way in which linguistic choices are affected not just by the topic or subject of communication but also by the kind of social relationship within which communication is taking place. Mode is the linguistic reflection of the relationship the language user has to medium of transmission. The principal distinction within mode is between those channels of communication that entail immediate contact and those that allow for deferred contact between participants.

Cultural Context

Cultural context refers to the culture, customs and background of epoch in language communities in which the speakers participate. Language is a social phenomenon, and it is closely tied up with

the social structure and value system of society. Therefore, language cannot avoid being influenced by all these factors like social role, social status, sex and age, etc. Social roles are culture-specific functions, institutionalized in a society and recognized by its members. By social status, we mean the relative social standing of the participants. Each participant in the language event must know, or make assumptions about his or her status in relation to the other, and in many situations, status will also be an important factor in the determination of who should initiate the conversation. Sex and age are often determinants of, or interact with, social status. The terms of address employed by a person of one sex speaking to an older person, may differ from those which would be employed in otherwise similar situations by people of the same sex or of the same age.

Discourse and Conversation

Background to conversation analysis

Conversation analysis is an approach to the analysis of spoken discourse that looks at the way in which people manage their everyday conversational interactions. It examines how spoken discourse is organized and develops as speakers carry out these interactions. Conversation analysis has examined aspects of spoken discourse such as sequences of related utterances (*adjacency pairs*), preferences for particular combinations of utterances (*preference organization*), *turn taking*, *feedback*, *repair*, *conversational openings and closings*, *discourse markers* and *response tokens*. Conversation analysis works with recordings of spoken data and carries out careful and fine-grained analyses of this data.

Conversation analysis (CA) is an approach to the study of social interaction that emerged in the 1960s in the writings and lectures of the late sociologist Harvey Sacks and was consolidated in his collaborations with Emanuel A. Schegloff and Gail Jefferson in the later 1960s and early 1970s. CA is not a subfield of linguistics and does not take language as per its primary object of study. Rather, the object of study is the organization of human social interaction. However, because language figures centrally in the way humans interact, CA typically (though not necessarily) involves the analysis of talk. For all practical purposes, CA can be thought of as the study of talk in interaction and other forms of human conduct in interaction other than talk, for example, gaze, gesture, body orientations, and their combinations.

The boundaries of the field are not always completely clear. However, we can treat the application of the conversation analytic method as criteria to inclusion within the field. This method involves a series of steps beginning with what Sacks described as “unmotivated observation” of some stretch of recorded interaction (copresent or telephone) with the goal merely of noticing something about it. Once a noticing has been made (e.g., some responses to yes-no questions are prefaced by “oh”), the researcher can then start assembling a collection of possible instances.

A collection constitutes the empirical basis upon which to develop an analysis of what distinctive work the phenomenon or practice initially noticed through unmotivated observation accomplishes this being independent of the contextual specifics of any particular instance. The method is therefore fundamentally qualitative in that it involves case-by-case study of each instance. However, though fundamentally qualitative in this sense, the method also involves looking across multiple instances in a collection of cases—it is this that allows us to see and to describe the generic, stable features of the practice that are independent of the particular contextual features of any given instance.

The scholarship within CA can be divided up in a number of different ways. One possible categorization distinguishes studies concerned primarily with the organization of talk itself and those concerned to use the methods of CA to investigate some other aspect of the social world.

Another possible categorization distinguishes studies of “ordinary conversation” from those of institutional interaction.

Transcription Conventions

A transcript is a technique for the fixing (e.g., on paper, on a computer screen) of brief events (e.g., utterances, gestures) for the purpose of detailed analysis. Transcripts are inherently incomplete and should be continuously revised to display features of an interaction that have been illuminated by a particular analysis and allow for new insights that might lead to a new analysis. (See Alessandro Duranti *Linguistic Anthropology*, Cambridge University Press, 1997: ch. 5, and References below).

Transcribed data extracts embody an effort to have the spelling of the words roughly indicate how the words sounded when produced. Often, this involves a departure from standard orthography.

In addition, the following symbols can be used to convey aspects of the talk that figure most frequently as design features of talk-in-interaction.

??

Arrows in the margin point to the lines of transcript relevant to the point being made in the text.

()

Empty parentheses indicate talk too obscure to transcribe. Words or letters inside such parentheses indicate the transcriber's best estimate of what is being said or who is saying it.

hhh .hhh

The letters

[

Left-side brackets indicate where overlapping talk begins.

]

Right-side brackets indicate where overlapping talk ends. Brackets should always appear with one or more other brackets of the same sort (left or right) on the line(s) directly above or below to indicate which turns are implicated in the overlap.

((coughs))

Words in double parentheses indicate transcriber's comments, not transcriptions.

(0.8)(.)

Numbers in parentheses indicate intervals without speech in tenths of a second; a dot in parentheses marks an interval of less than (0.2).

becau-

A hyphen indicates an abrupt cut-off or self-interruption of the sound in progress indicated by the preceding letter(s) (the example here represents a self-interrupted “because”).

:::

Colons indicate a lengthening of the sound just preceding them, proportional to the number of colons.

Underlining

He says Underlining indicates stress or emphasis, proportional to the number of letters underlined.

?

An upward-pointing arrow indicates especially high pitch relative to preceding talk; a downward-pointing arrow indicates especially low pitch relative to preceding talk.

>talk

Right and left carats (or “more than” and “less than” symbols) indicate that the talk between them was speeded up or “compressed” relative to surrounding talk.

=

Equal signs (ordinarily at the end of one line and the start of an ensuing line attributed to a different speaker) indicate a “latched” relationship -- no silence at all between them. If the two lines are attributed to the same speaker and are separated by talk by another, the = marks a single, through-produced utterance by the speaker separated as a transcription convenience to display overlapping talk by another. A single equal sign in the middle of a line indicates no break in an ongoing spate of talk, where one might otherwise expect it, e.g., after a completed sentence.

°word°

Talk appearing within degree signs is lower in volume relative to surrounding talk.

WOrd

Upper case marks especially loud sounds relative to the WORD surrounding talk.

Punctuation is designed to capture intonation, not grammar and should be used to describe intonation at the end of a sentence or some other, shorter unit. Use the symbols as follows: Question mark for marked rising intonation; . period for marked falling intonation; and , comma for a combination of slightly rising then slightly falling (or slightly falling and then slightly rising) intonation;

These notational conventions were developed by Gail Jefferson.

Conversation analysis and Second Language Conversation

While most studies in the area of conversation analysis have examined native speaker talk, in recent years attention has also shifted to non-native speaker talk. Markee (2000), for example, shows how conversation analysis can be used as a tool for analyzing and understanding the acquisition of a second language. He discusses the importance of looking at 'outlier' data in second language acquisition studies pointing out that, from a conversation analysis perspective, all participants' behavior makes sense to the individuals involved and must be accounted for, rather than set aside, in the analysis.

Storch (2001a, 2001b) carried out a fine-grained analysis of second language learner talk as her students carried out pair work activities in an ESL classroom. She found this analysis allowed her to identify the characteristics of the talk, and the nature of the interactions they engaged in that contributed to or impeded their success in the acquisition of the language items they were focusing on. She also found how the grouping of pairs in the class were important for the nature of their discourse and the extent to which the discourse was collaborative, and facilitated their learning or not (see Wong and Zhang Waring 2010 for a discussion of how conversation analysis can be drawn on in second language teaching and learning).

Conversation Analysis and Second Language Pedagogy locates itself at the node of research and practice, connecting the findings of conversation analysis (CA) to language teaching. In one sense, the text contributes to an existing, growing body of research that links CA to second language (L2) classroom interaction (e.g., Markee, 2000; Mori, 2002; Seedhouse, 2004; Waring, 2008). However, unlike most work in this vein, the authors are not attempting to describe verbal exchanges that occur in the L2 classroom. That is, rather than use CA to better understand how teachers and students talk.

Lecture-04

Discourse and Sociolinguistics

ENG523 – Bitcom by Maha Malik

DISCOURSE SOCIETY

Discourse communities and speech communities

Discourse community is a group of people who share some kind of activity such as member of a club or association who have regular meeting. Or a group of students who go to classes at the same university. Members of a discourse community have particular ways of communicating with each other. They generally have shared goal and may have shared value and beliefs. Swales (1990) provides a set of characteristics for identifying a group of people as members of a particular discourse community, the group must have some set of shared common goals, some mechanisms for communication, and some way of providing the exchange of information amongst its member. The community must have its own particular genres, its own set of specialized terminology and vocabulary, and a high level of expertise in its particular area. These goals may be formally agreed upon (as in the case of clubs and associations) 'or they may be more tacit' (Swales 1990:24).

The ways in which people communicate with each other and exchange information will vary according to the group. This might include meeting, newsletter, casual conversations or a range of other types of written and/or spoken communications. That is, the discourse community will have particular ways for communicating with each other and ways of getting things done that have developed through time. Discourse communities also interact with wider speech communities. For example, the academic discourse community of students and academics also interacts with the wider speech community of the town or city in which the academic institution is located (Swales 1993). It is for these reasons that some people prefer the term communities of practice (Wenger 1998; Barton and Tusting 2005) to the term 'Discourse community'.

Speech communities and spoken and written discourse **Speech community is a boarder term than the term discourse community.** According to Richard Nordquist, speech community is a term in sociolinguistics and linguistics anthropology for a group of people who use the same variety of a language and who share specific rules for speaking and for interpreting speech. It includes discourse communities and the range and varieties of languages that members of the speech community use to interact with each other. Speech community is important for the discussions of spoken and written discourse. In linguistics, a speech community refers to any a group of people that speak the same language.

Defining a speech community there are some factors that make easier to define a speech community other than just language. Those are social, geographical, cultural, political and ethnic factors, race, age and gender. Not all of speakers always be full members of particular speech communities. For example, is in the case of second language setting. For example, a speaker may participate, only to a certain degree, in the target speech community. The degree to which occurs may be due to factors such as age to entry into the speech community, the speech community's attitudes and expectations towards the place of second language speakers in the speech community

or other factors such as educational or occupational opportunities, limitations in the particular speech community.

Discourse and language choice Discourse and language choice is a variation of language when we interact with the other communities as explained by Holmes (2001) that the choice of language is being used in such as, with family, among friends, and in religious, educational and employment settings. Social factors such as who we are speaking to, the social context of the interaction, the topic, function and goal of the interaction, social distance between speakers, the formality of the setting or type of interaction and the status of each of the speakers are also important for accounting for the language choice that a person makes in these kinds of settings. “A speaker or writer may also be the speaker of a particular language variety but be using that variety to communicate with a wider speech community than just their own. The best seller *Eats, Shoots & Leaves*” (Truss 2003) for examples: Discourse, Social class and Social Networks Social Class and Social networks are the way we spoken or written with the other but we have to use the words or speech be right and polite such as when we speak or write something to family, we use the word be polite.

Discourse and language choice

When language is viewed as a system, we see it in terms of its component parts and how these interact. The three basic components are substance, form and meaning. Substance refers to the sounds the language uses (phonic substance), for example, its vowels and consonants, and the symbols used in writing (graphic substance). Next, we have three basic types of form: grammar, lexis and phonology. In the case of grammar, English forms include past-tense endings, modal verbs and prepositions, along with rules for putting these together (syntax). The lexical forms consist of words, which follow rules for vowel and consonant combinations, how they combine with other words in collocations, fixed expressions, etc. and how they interact with the grammar. Phonology gives us the forms for pronunciation, stress (the syllable with most intensity) and intonation (e.g., whether the voice rises or falls).

The third component, meaning, refers to what the combinations of form and substance signify (the semantics). In English, the form was speaking signifies past time, green and blue signify particular colors and rising intonation often signifies a question. If we reverse this perspective, meaning is what we intend to say, form is how we assemble the message using appropriate words, grammar and sounds (or written symbols), and substance is what we actually say or write. We find information on the system in reference grammars (for English, this includes reference grammars such as Biber et al. 1999; Carter and McCarthy 2006), in dictionaries (e.g., 3 Macmillan 2002; Hornby 2010), which usually give information on pronunciation. Works describing English intonation tend to be more specialised (e.g., Cruttenden 1997; Tench 2015).

Discourse ideology

The theory of ideology that serves as the framework for the present paper is multidisciplinary. It defines ideologies as a special form of social cognition shared by social groups. Ideologies thus form the basis of the social representations and practices of group members, including their discourse, which at the same time serves as the means of ideological production, reproduction and challenge (for details, see Van Dijk, 1998).

The theoretical complexities of this framework are considerable. So far we have more questions than answers. For instance, we have few explicit ideas about the internal structures of the mental representations of ideologies. And without such representations we are unable to detail the ways ideologies influence the underlying mental processes involved in discourse and other social practices.

As for the social dimension of the theory of ideology, we still ignore among many other things which social collectivities, and under what conditions, develop ideologies. Accordingly, examining the ways ideologies influence contextualization is one of the many puzzles that we face in such a complex theory that needs to bridge the gaps between discourse, cognition and society.

Ideologies as social beliefs rather trivially ideologies consist of a specific kind of ideas. In somewhat more technical jargon (in social psychology and political science), we would call them belief systems or social representations of some kind (Aebischer, Deconchy & Lipiansky, 1992; Augoustinos, 1998; Farr & Moscovici, 1984; Fraser & Gasket]. 1990). This means that they are not personal beliefs, but beliefs shared by groups, as is also the case for grammars, socioculturally shared knowledge, group attitudes or norms and values. Indeed, we assume that ideologies form the basis of the belief systems or social representations of specific groups (see also Scarbrough, 1990).

Knowledge, if ideologies control the social representations of groups, they also control the knowledge acquired and shared by a group. This is true, however, only for a specific kind of knowledge, namely what we shall call group knowledge. These are the social beliefs which a group holds to be true, according to its own evaluation or verification (truth) criteria, as is the case for scientists, members of a church or members of a social movement. Of course, for other groups, such beliefs may be mere opinions or false beliefs, and therefore not be called knowledge at all. The crucial, empirical and discursive, test to distinguish knowledge from other beliefs is that knowledge shared by a group tends to be presupposed by its members, and not asserted, in text and talk (except in pedagogical discourse, as well as in discourse directed at non group members). It is this group knowledge, then, that may be ideological based.

This formulation suggests that we should also speak of beliefs that are generally shared in society, across (ideological) group boundaries. That is, by definition this kind of cultural knowledge is non-ideological. There is no difference of opinion, no ideological struggle, and no opposition in this

case. These are the basic beliefs of a culture, on which all others, also the ideological beliefs of groups, are based.

To stress this general, cultural basis of these beliefs, we may also call them **Cultural Common Ground**. This common ground is constantly changing. What is specific group knowledge today (e.g., within the scientific community), may be general knowledge and hence common ground tomorrow. And vice versa, what was generally thought to be true, may now appear to be false or merely an opinion of specific groups (typically so for Christian religion, for instance). Common ground is the socio-cognitive basis of our common sense, and is generally presupposed in public discourse, by members of culturally competent members of all groups (except children and members of other cultures). Note that the notion of (cultural) Common Ground used here is more general than the notion of common ground as shared knowledge between participants in conversation, which may also include personal knowledge and group beliefs (Clark, 1996; see also Smith, 1982).

LANGUAGE IDEOLOGIES

Sociolinguistics Responses to Language Ideology

As conceptual tools, *language ideologies* and *language attitudes* were created by researchers in the second half of the 20th century to provide a means of treating speakers' feelings and ideas about various languages and linguistic forms as a critical factor in understanding processes of language change, language and identity, and language in its socioeconomic context. But even though each of these concepts can be viewed as related to a common effort to bring linguistic subjectivity into research once exclusively dominated by objectivist frameworks that attempted to explain linguistic phenomena, without recourse to speakers' apparent understandings, the two concepts have complementary histories of development.

Definitions of both these concepts typically invoke speakers' feelings and beliefs about language structure or language use. But a close analysis of their distinctive histories and patterned distribution reveals that they have not only very different origins but also significant differences in the way they encourage researchers to focus on distinctive aspects of similar phenomena. In addition to their different histories and fields of focal concern, the two concepts are typically associated with very different kinds of methodologies.

Language attitudes, as a concept, are generally associated with an objectivist concern with quantitative measurement of speakers' reactions. This concern is surely related to its conceptual origins in social psychology, quantitative sociolinguistics, and educational linguistics. In contrast, the concept of language ideologies is associated with qualitative methods such as ethnography, conversational analysis, and discourse analysis, as will be exemplified in the various sections of this article. This methodological reliance on qualitative methods is certainly related to its association with linguistic anthropology, interpretive sociology, and systemic functional linguistics. Also, in contrast to the history of application for the concept of language attitudes, language ideologies in harmony with its anthropological origins has tended to emphasize how speakers' beliefs and feelings about language are constructed from their experience as social actors in a political economic system, and how speakers' often partial awareness of the form and function of their semiotic resources is critically important.

While students of language ideologies read them both from speakers' articulate explanations (e.g., in interviews or conversational interaction) and from comparatively unreflecting, habitual discursive practice, students of language attitudes tend to measure reactions through more standardized and objective forms of data collection (survey, extended interview, matched guise test, and the analysis of socio-phonetic samples). Apart from the social sciences, research in the humanities has also taken up language as a cultural phenomenon and has added a historical as well as an ideological dimension to the study of the emergence of awareness regarding the use of urban

dialects and other local linguistic forms, perhaps as symbolic pushback to sociolinguistic globalization.

The Recruitment of Language to Political and Cultural Projects

Political culture is the set of attitudes, beliefs, and sentiments which give order and meaning to a political process and which provide the underlying assumptions and rules that govern behavior in the political system. It encompasses both the political ideals and the operating norms of a polity. Political culture is thus the manifestation in aggregate form of the psychological and subjective dimensions of politics. A political culture is the product of both the collective history of a political system and the life histories of the members of that system, and thus it is rooted equally in public events and private experiences.

Political culture is a recent term which seeks to make more explicit and systematic much of the understanding associated with such long-standing concepts as political ideology, national ethos and spirit, national political psychology, and the fundamental values of a people. Political culture, by embracing the political orientations of both leaders and citizens, is more inclusive than such terms as political style or operational code, which focus on elite behavior. On the other hand, the term is more explicitly political and hence more restrictive than such concepts as public opinion and national character.

More specifically, the concept of political culture was developed in response to the need to bridge a growing gap in the behavioral approach between the level of micro analysis, based on the psychological interpretations of the individual's political behavior, and the level of macro analysis, based on the variables common to political sociology. In this sense the concept constitutes an attempt to integrate psychology and sociology so as to be able to apply to dynamic political analysis both the revolutionary findings of modern depth psychology and recent advances in sociological techniques for measuring attitudes in mass societies. Within the discipline of political science, the emphasis on political culture signals an effort to apply an essentially behavioral form of analysis to the study of such traditional problems as political ideology, legitimacy, sovereignty, nationhood, and the rule of law. (For a theoretical analysis of the concept see Verba in Pye & Verba 1965, pp. 512–560.)

Intellectual curiosity about the roots of national differences in politics dates from the writing of

Herodotus, and possibly no recent studies have achieved the richness of understanding of such classic studies of national temperament as those by Tocqueville, Bryce, and Emerson. But the dynamic intellectual tradition which inspired political culture studies comes almost entirely from the studies of national character and the psychocultural analyses of the 1930s and 1940s. Benedict (1934; 1946), Mead (1942; 1953), Gorer (1948; 1953; 1955), Fromm (1941), and Klineberg (1950) all sought to utilize the findings of psychoanalysis and cultural anthropology to provide deeper understanding of national political behavior. A major objection to these studies was their failure to recognize that the political sphere constitutes a distinct subculture with its own rules of conduct and its distinct processes of socialization. The practice of moving directly from the stage of child training to the level of national decision making meant that crucial intervening processes were neglected.

Language Ideologies in Powerful Institutional Complexes

Language ideologies are always understood to refer to more than just language. They always entail local conceptualizations of social categories, social activities, and the phenomenological or experiential worlds associated with them. And for some scholar's language ideologies are also about the exercise of power, relations of domination, subordination, struggle, and transformation. From a slightly different point of view, what we readily recognize as "language ideologies" are actually often about something other than language culturally and occur in situations where language as a topic is ideologically appropriated by and put to use in larger political projects.

We have already encountered language ideologies about gendered speech in the United States as an example where language was recruited to feminist critique of male female relations in the Women's Liberation Movement. This language-oriented feminist critique had a great deal in common with other American social identity-based language oriented political critiques, for example, critiques of terms for ethnic minorities, the physically disabled, and the mentally disabled as pejorative and stigmatizing. At the heart of these critiques is the idea that by replacing pejorative terms with neutral or positive terms we will change people's attitudes and treatment toward the groups at issue.

The most influential and widespread political projects to which languages are ideologically recruited are those of nation-building (Blommaert 1999; Blommaert and Verschueren 1998; Inoue 2006; Irvine and Gal 2000; Philips 2000). Scholars both perceive people producing language ideologies to be engaged in nation-building and are themselves fascinated with the phenomenon of nation-building, one of the great global ideological projects of the current and past several centuries. One of the key appeals of the paper "Language Ideology and Linguistic Differentiation"

by Irvine and Gal (2000) is that it deals conceptually with social identity categories that orient to the nation state in ways that are widely shared among linguistic and cultural anthropologists.

Group identity categories in analyses of language ideologies that have nation-states as a point of reference or a point of departure include: nation-states themselves, ethnic/linguistic minorities within nation-states, colonizers, and colonized in colonial nation-state formation projects and postcolonial newly independent nation-states. Regions, tribes, and villages are also understood as existing within nation-states in ways that impinge upon them politically, including in the form of the imposition of language ideologies.

Irvine and Gal also offer a rare broadly comparative perspective that enables comparisons to be made between and among ethnic minorities in Eastern European nations and tribes in African nations, and to find commonalities across nations in processes of the formation of language ideologies. Situations of language shift and the language ideologies associated with them are also typically understood in terms of nation-state formation and colonialism.

Moreover, the kinds of powerful institutional domains that generate language ideologies through their work, particularly law and education, are understood ideologically as arms of the state and as functioning in nation-state specific conditions. The third institutional domain that has yielded documentation of language ideologies, namely Christian religion, is generally also treated as occurring within a specific nation-state, even though its organization may be transnational.

CODE SWITCHING, IDENTITY AND GLOBALIZATION

Speech Community Identities

Speech community is a term in sociolinguistics and linguistic anthropology used to describe a group of people who share the same language, speech characteristics, and ways of interpreting communication. Speech communities may be large regions like an urban area with a common, distinct accent (think of Boston with its dropped r's) or small units like families and friends (think of a nickname for a sibling). They help people define themselves as individuals and community members and identify (or misidentify) others.

The concept of speech community plays a role in a number of social sciences, namely sociology, anthropology, linguistics, even psychology. People who study issues of migration and ethnic identity use social community theory to study things like how immigrants assimilate into larger societies, for instance. Academics who focus on racial, ethnic, sexual or gender issues apply social community theory when they study issues of personal identity and politics. It also plays a role in data collection. By being aware of how communities are defined, researchers can adjust their subject pools in order to obtain representative sample populations.

Speech and Identity the concept of speech as a means of identifying with a community first emerged in 1960s academia alongside other new fields of research like ethnic and gender studies. Linguists like John Gumperz pioneered research in how personal interaction can influence ways of speaking and interpreting, while Noam Chomsky studied how people interpret language and derive meaning from what they see and hear.

Types of Communities

Speech communities can be large or small, although linguists don't agree on how they're defined. Some, like linguist Muriel Saville-Troike, argue that it's logical to assume that a shared language like English, which is spoken throughout the world, is a speech community. But she differentiates between "hard-shelled" communities, which tend to be narrow-minded and friendly, like a family or religious sect, and "soft-shelled" communities where there is a lot of interaction. But other linguists say a common language is too vague to be considered a true speech community.

The linguistic anthropologist Zdenek Salzman describes it this way:

"People who speak the same language are not always members of the same speech community. On the one hand, speakers of South Asian English in India and Pakistan share a language with citizens of the U.S., but the respective varieties of English and the rules for speaking them are sufficiently distinct to assign the two populations to different speech communities." Instead, Salzman and others say, speech communities should be more narrowly defined based on characteristics such as pronunciation, grammar, vocabulary, and manner of speaking.

Nation- State Identities

National identity is a person's identity or sense of belonging to one state or to one nation. It is the sense of a nation as a cohesive whole, as represented by distinctive traditions, culture, language and politics. The nation-state “is one where the great majority is conscious of a common identity and share the same culture”. The nation-state is an area where the cultural boundaries match up with the political boundaries. The ideal of ‘nation-state’ is that the state incorporates people of a single ethnic stock and cultural traditions.

However, most contemporary states are polyethnic. Thus, it can be argued that the nation-state” would exist if nearly all the members of a single nation were organized in a single state, without any other national communities being present. The nation as we think of it today is a product of the nineteenth century. In modern times nation is recognized as 'the' political community that ensures the legitimacy of the state over its territory, and transforms the state into the state of all its citizens. The notion of 'nation-state' emphasizes this new alliance between nation and state. Nationality is supposed to bind the citizen to the state, a bond that will be increasingly tied to the advantages of a social policy in as much as the Welfare State will develop.

The study of language and political economy emerged during the 1980s from parallel currents in several fields. Neo-Marxist scholars across the social sciences were increasingly interested in the symbolic and linguistic aspects of unequally distributed economic and political power. Where philosophers during the eighteenth century had posited an essential unity between language, nationality, and the state, twentieth-century studies viewed this unity as a product of ideology propagated by state institutions, among them publishing (Anderson 1983) and education (Bourdieu 1977).

These theoretical discussions of inequality resonated with empirical sociolinguistic research on the stratification of privileged linguistic forms along class, gender, or ethnic lines. Inspired by these connections, a new generation of scholars took as their subject the investigation of boundaries between linguistic and social groupings within the nation-state. According to Gal (1988), code-switching served in these analyses as a clear example of “systematic, linguistically striking, and socially meaningful linguistic variation” (245). Scholars in this tradition did not simply affirm the theoretical arguments advanced in social theory; rather, they viewed sociolinguistic research as providing an important corrective to some of the more grandiose claims circulating across academia. The strength of this tradition lies in its combined use of sociopolitical theory, conversational data, and detailed ethnography to understand language choice as an ideologically motivated and historically situated response to the state’s prioritization of certain language varieties over others.

Scholars of language and political economy seek to explain the ways that languages function in diverse settings both as markers and as constitutive elements of social structures. Identity is viewed as emerging within the stratifying systems of standardization associated with European-inspired

models of nationalism. Where researchers in the earlier tradition deepened their investigation of identity as an interactional achievement, these scholars examined the historical contexts and political ideologies that made social identities inhabitable in the first place. Critical to this undertaking is the examination of everyday practice as a site for the production of social hierarchy. Language choice can reflect the understanding of “self” versus “other” within broad political, historical, and economic contexts, but it can also construct more localized groupings of ethnicity, gender, or social class within these larger contexts. We have chosen the term nationstate identities as shorthand for the treatment of subjectivity in this tradition.

Multicultural Identities

People who belong to more than one cultural group must navigate the diverse norms and values from each of their cultural affiliations. Faced with such diversity, multicultural individuals need to manage and organize their different and possibly clashing cultural identities within their general sense of self. The multicultural person, therefore, is not simply the one who is sensitive to many different cultures. Rather, this person is always in the process of becoming a part of and apart from a given cultural context. He or she is a formative being, resilient, changing, and evolutionary.

The 1990s was an explosive decade for the theorization of identity, as scholars began to challenge static understandings of selfhood that damaged a previous generation of research. This shift, which helped in nothing short of a sea change within linguistics in the way identity is viewed, can be attributed to a diversity of factors, only some of which can be recounted here. Postmodern challenges to the authoritative voice of the analyst matched with the rise of digital communication, multiculturalism, deconstructionism, and the poststructuralist valorization of discourse as the site for the production of subjectivity.

These developments all presented challenges to psychological understandings of the self as singular and unified. Critical gender theorists such as Butler (1990) advanced the idea that identity is performative: it produces itself anew by reiterating what is already discursively intelligible. For sociocultural linguists, this perspective forced closer attention to how subjectivity might emerge within the constraints and allowances of interaction. As Bucholtz and Hall (2004a, 2004b, 2005) suggest in their reviews of this period, identity began to be viewed as a discursive construct that is both multiple and partial, materializing within the binds of everyday discourse.

During the same decade, a growing body of research on the globalized new economy began to theorize identity as fragmented by processes associated with late modernity. The expansion and intensification of international exchange severed the connection between identity and locale that had been previously assumed. Whether discussed in terms of “detraditionalization” (Giddens 1991), “liquid modernity” (Bauman 2000), or “network society” (Castells 1996), identity had lost its deictic grounding in the temporal and spatial fixities that constituted an earlier era, including the nation-state. The full force of these theorizations did not surface in the codeswitching literature

until after the millennium, but their reflexes can be seen in early sociolinguistic work on urban diasporic communities and minority groups constituted through transnational migration.

Noteworthy in this regard are two influential ethnographies published in the mid-1990s that launched quite divergent views of ethnicity as a social construct: Zentella's (1997) *Growing Up Bilingual* and Rampton's (1995) *Crossing: Language and Ethnicity among Adolescents*. Both perspectives are importantly informed by the discursive turn in social theory and offer highly contextualized discussions of identity as an interactional achievement, even if their conceptualization of ethnicity at the turn of the century differs. This ethnographically based generation of research offered renewed attention to the concern with language ideologies, advancing the idea that language contact brought about by global movement leads to heightened reflexivity toward the indexical links between language and identity.

SOCIAL LANGUAGES, CONVERSATIONS, AND INTERTEXTUALITY

Social Languages

The first tool of inquiry is “social languages.” This tool acknowledges that people use different styles or varieties of language depending on the settings and purposes in order to recognize different identities and to engage in different building tasks. Thus, social languages are linguistic varieties that one employs depending on the social identity that one chooses based on the setting. For example, I might say, “Hey, guess what? I really love talking about Hispanic culture and want to know more!” But, in a graduate school interview, I would say, “I have a great interest in Hispanic culture, and I would like to use this opportunity to do some more research about that ethnicity.” In the first context, I would take the social identity of a friend in a very informal context while on the second one; I would be more formal and professional, as of a prominent student with academic interest. The research question could be, “*What is your identity in this context and which linguistic style do you employ?*” In research, I would observe one speaker in two or more different settings and compare linguistic varieties employed such as word choices, sentence structure, and usages. This tool helps us to recognize different social identities of each individual depending on different linguistic context.

All languages, like English or French, are composed of many (a great many) different social languages. Social languages are what we learn and what we speak. Keep in mind that “social languages” and “Discourses” are terms for different things. I will use the term “social languages” to talk about the role of language in Discourses. But as I said above, Discourses always involve more than language. They always involve coordinating language with ways of acting, interacting, valuing, believing, feeling, and with bodies, clothes, non-linguistic symbols, objects, tools, technologies, times, and places. Consider, for instance, the following case of an uppermiddle-class, Anglo-American young woman named “Jane,” in her twenties, who was attending one of the courses on language and communication. The course was discussing different social languages and, during the discussion, Jane claimed that she herself did not use different social languages in different contexts, but rather, was consistent from context to context. In fact, to do otherwise, she said, would be “hypocritical,” a failure to “be oneself.”

The second tool is “Discourses,” which include non-verbal communication elements: physical appearance, use of symbols, gestures, objects, and even timing. In class, as a student, I take my classroom-essential objects such as a binder, pencil, and a notebook; I write down notes from the lecture and raise my hand if I want to make a comment. But this same person, I, would act differently when I am at home talking with my parents in a dinner table. I would not take anything prepared with me but sit there and engage in a conversation without even raising my hand.

The question for this tool can be, “*What verbal and non-verbal elements do you use to build your identity and activities?*” and “*As whom do you want to be recognized and doing what?*” The analyst should, thus, observe and analyze not only the verbal elements but also the non-verbal elements in a conversation, and then take a step further to infer to the identity of the speaker. Also,

while discourse is a conversation or story, the Discourse involves other elements in addition to linguistic aspects.

Conversations

When talking with someone, it is helpful to know what type of conversation you are in. You can do so based on a conversation's direction of communication (a one-way or two-way street) and its tone/purpose (competitive or cooperative). If you are in a one-way conversation, you are talking at someone, rather than with someone. If you are in a two-way conversation, participants are both listening and talking. In a competitive conversation, people are more concerned about their own perspective, whereas in cooperative conversation participants are interested in the perspective of everyone involved. Based on direction and tone, I grouped conversations into four types: debate, dialogue, discourse, and diatribe.

Debate is a competitive, two-way conversation. The goal is to win an argument or convince someone, such as the other participant or third-party observers. **Dialogue** is a cooperative, two-way conversation. The goal is for participants to exchange information and build relationships with one another. **Discourse** is a cooperative, one-way conversation. The goal is to deliver information from the speaker/writer to the listeners/readers.

Diatribe is a competitive, one-way conversation. The goal is to express emotions, browbeat those that disagree with you, and/or inspires those that share the same perspective.

It is important to know which type of conversation you are in, because that determines the purpose of that conversation. If you can identify the purpose, you can better speak to the heart of that conversation. But, if you misidentify the conversation, you are in, you can fall into conversational pitfalls.

The "Conversations" include all the talks and writings that have been going in a particular society or a social group with a focus on a specific theme, debate, or motif that is unsettled or contested. In order to know about the Conversation and to engage, we should know about not only the issues and different opinions of each side of the debate but also who is on each side. For instance, let's imagine that one student at Calvin College says, "Christians should use less plastic silverware." Because of the fundamental Calvinistic CRC theology of Creation-FallRedemption-Restoration, we instinctively know that it refers to not simply the on-going conversation on environmental issues but also the theology that Christians should be restorers of the world as the stewards of Christ.

However, people on the other side may refute that plastic silverware can be rather a healthier and cleaner option—especially for sack lunch and in places like Johnny's—because then people can use new ones without sharing, and they are more portable. Hence, the research question could be, "What is the on-going conversation in this social context?" And "Who are in each side of this discussion?" In order to answer this, the analyst should be aware of the relevant conversation that

has been taken place in that particular linguistic society. Only by answering this, people can engage in the “conversation” knowing the implied message.

Intertextuality and Discourses as Tools of Inquiry

Definition: Intertextuality describes cases where one oral or written text directly or indirectly quotes another text or alludes to the text in more subtle ways.

Explanation: A single written or oral text can be in one social language or it can switch between two or more or even mix them together. Sometimes, however, a text spoken or written in one social language will accomplish a sort of switching by borrowing words from another text spoken or written in the same or a different variety of language. One text can directly quote another text, indirectly quote it, or just allude to what certain hearers or readers (with background knowledge) will realize are words taken from another source.

Operationalization: I would use this tool when a person’s understanding of the meaning behind a text is dependent upon their knowledge of other texts in such a way that is of particular interest. To use this tool, I would search the text for instances where its register or diction or sentence structure deviates from the normal pattern. In cases of odd constructions, I would look up the phrases in order to determine where they came from and what they bring to the text. I would also ask an expert (or conduct research on the text) to familiarize myself with the community out of which the text arises so as to spot instances of intertextuality more easily. I would then analyze how the “insider” knowledge contributes to a person’s understanding of the text, as well as how a lack of understanding changes a person’s reading of the text.

Example: Professor Vanden Bosch is in the habit of incorporating phrases from the Bible into his utterances in class lectures. Each reference brings with it some meaning from its original context into its new context as in the statement “The dates in bold on the syllabus are either days off or days of reckoning.” If I were to keep a running list of these sorts of utterances and write down some general impressions of them, and then look up any specific references, it would be interesting to see the difference between knowing something is from the Bible from how it sounds (and thus interpreting it as being more important or dramatic or serious) and knowing something is from a very specific part of the Bible, with a specific textual context containing all sorts of moral and ideological implications.

Lecture-05 Discourse and Speech

SPEECH ACTS AND DISCOURSE-I

Introduction to Speech Acts

The **speech act** theory considers language as a sort of action rather than a medium to convey and express thoughts. The contemporary **Speech act** theory developed by J. L. Austin a British philosopher of languages; he introduced this theory in 1975 in his well-known book of 'How do things with words. Later John Searle brought the aspects of theory into much higher dimensions. This theory is often used in the field of philosophy of languages. Austin is the one who came up with the findings that people not only use that language to assert things but also to do things. And people who followed him went to greater depths based on this point.

Theory: All sort of linguist communication is comprised of linguistic actions. Previously it was conceived that the very basic unit of communication is words, symbols, sentences or some kind of token of all of these, but it was speech act theory which suggested that production or issuances of words, symbols are the basic units of communication. This issuance happens during the process

of performance of speech act. The meaning of these basic units was considered as the building blocks of mutual understanding between the people intend to communicate. **“A theory of language is a theory of action”- Greig E. Henderson and Christopher Brown.**

The theory emphasizes that the utterances have a different or specific meaning to its user and listener other than its meaning according to the language. The theory further identifies that there are two kinds of utterances, they are called constative and performative utterances. In his book of ‘How do things with words’ Austin clearly talks about the disparities between the constative and performative utterances. **A constative utterance is something which describes or denotes the situation, in relation with the fact of true or false.**

Example: The teacher asked Olivia whether she had stolen the candy. Olivia replies “mmmmmm”. Here the utterances of Olivia describe the event in part of answering her teacher whether the situation was true or false.

The performative utterances are something which does not describe anything at all. The utterances in the sentences or in the part of sentences are normally considered as having a meaning of its own. The feelings, attitudes, emotions and thoughts of the person performing linguistic act are much of a principal unit here.

Further Austin divides speech act into three different categories: They are,

1. **Locutionary act:** This is the act of saying something. It has a meaning and it creates an understandable utterance to convey or express.
2. **Illocutionary act:** It is performed as an act of saying something or as an act of opposed to saying something. The illocutionary utterance has a certain force of it. It well well-versed with certain tones, attitudes, feelings, or emotions. There will be an intention of the speaker or others in illocutionary utterance. It is often used as a tone of warning in day today life.
3. **Perlocutionary act** – It normally creates a sense of consequential effects on the audiences. The effects may be in the form of thoughts, imaginations, feelings or emotions. The effect upon the addressee is the main characteristic of perlocutionary utterances.

Example: The locutionary act describes a dangerous situation, the illocutionary act acts as a force of the warning and perlocutionary acts frighten the addressee. Austin himself admits that these three components of utterances are not altogether separable. “We must consider the total situation in which the utterance is issued- the total speech act – if we are to see the parallel between statements and performative utterance, and how each can go wrong. Perhaps indeed there is no great distinction between statements and performative utterances.” Austin.

Searle suggested that the basic unit of linguistic communication is **speech act**. It can be a word, a phrase, a sentence or a sound; it should fulfill the task of expressing the intention of the user.

Understanding the user’s intention can lead to complete understanding of the speech act.

Kinds of Speech Acts

Types of Speech Acts

There are various kinds of speech acts, yet the following, classified by John Searle, have received particular attention:

Representatives commit a speaker to the truth of an expressed proposition.

- Paradigm cases: asserting, stating, concluding, boasting, describing, suggesting.
 - *I am a great singer.*
 - *Bill was an accountant.*

Commissive commit a speaker to some future action.

- Paradigm cases: promising, pledging, threatening, vowing, offering.
 - *I am going to leave you.*
 - *I'll call you tonight.*

(9) Directives are used by a speaker who attempts to get the addressee to carry out an action.

- Paradigm cases: requesting, advising, commanding, challenging, inviting, daring, and entreating.
 - *You'd better tidy up that mess.*
 - *Sit down.*

Declarations affect an immediate change of affairs.

- Paradigm cases: declaring, baptizing, resigning, firing from employment, hiring, arresting.
 - *We find the defendant guilty.*
 - *I resign.*

Expressive express some sort of psychological state.

- Paradigm cases: greeting, thanking, apologizing, complaining, congratulating.
 - *This beer is disgusting.*
 - *I'm sorry to hear that.*

Speech Acts and Discourse

(10) The use of language in communication goes beyond employing its formal units for the description of reality. There is much to be learned on what constitutes language and on how it works from the consideration of the way bits of language are employed for the performance of various acts in the course of written or spoken interaction. Starting from this conception, the theory of speech acts sees language as an instrument for the performance of social acts. It postulates that the smallest unit of human communication is not the sentence as a syntactic unit. Alternatively, it suggests entities, such as making statements, asking questions, giving orders, describing, etc. regardless of their linguistic form as basic communicative units.

These are labeled speech acts, whereby speakers do things in the real world. In the following account, the theory of speech acts, as laid down by its initiators, is depicted by sketching out its earliest model and tracing its subsequent developments. Further, given the focus of the speech act theory on the situated expression of meaning, the inclusion of this theory within the wider scope of discourse analysis is justified by clarifying the existing theoretical connections between them. Eventually, the paper highlights the applicability of the speech act theory insights in the analysis and description of written texts. On the whole, this account is meant to offer broad insights on the earliest versions of the theory, and it can be exploited as an introductory text on it.

Discourse analysis examines stretches of language in their linguistic and extralinguistic contexts. It seeks to uncover regularities which could not be accounted for at sentential level by connecting language bits to the adjacent bits on the one hand and to the external situation on the other. Among the theoretical lines that have been pursued in the treatment of discourse is the speech act theory. Although, at its inception this paradigm was not meant to be a model of discourse analysis, many analysts do make use of its findings to account for a number of issues that arise in the analysis of language use. McCarthy (1991), in a brief historical overview, specifies the streams that converge to form the realm of discourse analysis including SAT.

In line with this, Van Dijk (1985), presenting a thorough account of the history of discourse analysis, mentions the speech act paradigm and clarifies that this approach considers verbal utterances not only as sentences, but also as specific forms of social action. In other words, when sentences are used in some context, they should be allocated some extra meaning or function to be defined in relation to speaker intentions, beliefs, or evaluations, or relations between speaker and hearer. In this way, the systematic properties of the context could be accounted for, and the relation between utterances as abstract linguistic objects and utterances taken as a form of social interaction could be explained.

In attempting to locate the speech act theory within the domain of discourse analysis, Schifffrin (1994) pinpoints two aspects of the speech act theory which have a direct relevance to discourse studies: the way an utterance can perform more than one speech act at a time and the connection between context and illocutionary force of speech acts.

Arriving at a satisfactory linguistic scrutiny of any aspect of discourse is bound to considering carefully the context in which it is expressed. This becomes very glaring when the utterances that constitute discourse are viewed as performing social actions. Speech act theory addresses an important dimension of language, that is, language as a means of communication. The value of its insights lies in the fact that the meanings of utterances are accounted for not in terms of the linguistic system alone. Meaning, in the speech act paradigm, is rather extracted from the surrounding context through conventionalization of illocutionary usages. This important shift in the treatment of meaning raises questions about what native speakers really know about using their languages.

Indeed, what constitutes knowledge of one's native language (competence) encompasses more than a set of lexico-grammatical forms. Such forms may vary their functions in the course of communication. The speech act theory emerged as a theory within the philosophy of language to explain the ways language can be used, but since then speech act theory has been used within a broader context in linguistics and even in computational models. However, this wider use has now pointed out several problems that show that the older outlook of speech acts developed by Austin and Searle is no longer satisfactory to offer an account of language use. On this basis, the theory has witnessed recently sweeping advancements.

SPEECH ACTS AND DISCOURSE-II

Speech Acts and Society

Speech-act theory is a subfield of pragmatics concerned with the ways in which words can be used not only to present information but also to carry out actions. As introduced by Oxford philosopher J.L. Austin (*How to Do Things With Words*, 1962) and further developed by American philosopher J.R. Searle, speech-act theory considers the levels of action at which utterances are said to perform:

- Locutionary acts
- Illocutionary acts
- Perlocutionary acts

Speakers can mean to communicate more than they say. It is never possible to say what one means in so many words, speakers require hearer to work to a greater or lesser extent to drive their message from the words uttered. A special and interesting type of communication has been explored by the Philosopher Paul Grice under the label of conversational implicature, so called because what is implied is implicated by virtue of the fact that the speaker and hearer are cooperatively contributing to a conversation (Akmajian et al, 1995).

Searle's Five Illocutionary Points

"In the past three decades, **speech act theory** has become an important branch of the contemporary theory of language thanks mainly to the influence of [J.R.] Searle (1969, 1979) and [H.P.] Grice

(1975) whose ideas on meaning and communication have stimulated research in philosophy and in human and cognitive sciences. From Searle's view, there are only five illocutionary points that speakers can achieve on propositions in an utterance, namely: **the assertive, commissive, directive, declaratory and expressive illocutionary points**. Speakers achieve the **assertive point** when they represent how things are in the world, the **commissive point** when they commit themselves to doing something, the **directive point** when they make an attempt to get hearers to do something, the **declaratory point** when they do things in the world at the moment of the utterance solely by virtue of saying that they do and the **expressive point** when they express their attitudes about objects and facts of the world.

Speech-Act Theory and Literary Criticism

Since 1970 **speech-act theory** has influenced in conspicuous and varied ways the practice of literary criticism. When applied to the analysis of direct discourse by a character within a literary work, it provides a systematic but sometimes cumbersome framework for identifying the unspoken presuppositions, implications, and effects of speech acts which competent readers and critics have always taken into account, subtly though unsystematically. Speech-act theory has also been used in a more radical way, however, as a model on which to recast the theory of literature in general, and especially the theory of prose narratives.

What the author of a fictional work--or else what the author's invented narrator narrates is held to constitute a pretended set of assertions, which are intended by the author, and understood by the competent reader, to be free from a speaker's ordinary commitment to the truth of what he or she asserts. Within the frame of the fictional world that the narrative thus sets up, however, the utterances of the fictional characters--whether these are assertions or promises or marital vows are held to be responsible to ordinary illocutionary commitments.

In **speech act theory**, the hearer is seen as playing a passive role. The illocutionary force of a particular utterance is determined with regard to the linguistic form of the utterance and also introspection as to whether the necessary felicity conditions not least in relation to the speaker's beliefs and feelings are fulfilled. Interactional aspects are, thus, neglected. However, conversation is not just a mere chain of independent illocutionary forces rather; speech acts are related to other speech acts with a wider discourse context. Speech acts theory, in that it does not consider the function played by utterances in driving conversation is, therefore, insufficient in accounting for what actually happens in conversation.

The cooperative principle and discourse

Cooperation is a term used in the linguistic literature to show the human behavior in a conversation (Davies, 2007). Pragmatics cannot work without realizing the figurative or hidden meaning in the conversational exchange. The conversational exchange works when we have the addresser and the addressee. If we have X and Y and they are participating in a conversation, X asks Y about something and he or she expects Y to be cooperative with him or her and answer his or her question

or statement, which should be relevant to what X asks or says. Consequently, they attempt to communicate to each other. In other words, they cooperate with each other, but it generates what it is called by Grice; implicatures.

As humans we are social beings and when we talk, we usually talk with or to others (unless we do a monologue). Paul Grice, an English language philosopher, argues that speakers intend to be cooperative when they talk. For Grice, *cooperative* means that the speaker knows that each utterance is a potential interference in the personal rights, autonomy and wishes (a potential face-threatening act) of the other. That is why we have to shape our utterances in a certain way.

(9) Grice formulated the principle of cooperation that underlies conversation, as follows: *Make your conversational contribution such as is required, at the stage at which it occurs, by the accepted purpose or direction of the talk exchange in which you are engaged* (Grice 1975:45) Grice's cooperative principle is a set of norms that are expected in conversations. It consists of four maxims; we have to follow in order to be cooperative and understood:

- **Maxim of quality:** As speaker we have to tell the truth or something that is provable by adequate evidence.
- **Maxim of quantity:** We have to be as informative as required, we should not say more or less.
- **Maxim of relation:** Our response has to be relevant to the topic of discussion.
- **Maxim of manner:** We have to avoid ambiguity or obscurity; we should be direct and straightforward.

Example

Yet, successful communication does not only depend on **WHAT** we are saying but also on **HOW** we are saying something!

Flouting the co-operative principle

Differences between flouting and violating maxims

Thomas (1995) and Cutting (2008) discuss differences between flouting and violating maxims. A speaker is flouting a maxim if they do not observe a maxim but has no intention of deceiving or misleading the other person. A person is 'violating' a maxim if there is likelihood that they are liable to mislead the other person. For example, 'Mummy's gone on a little holiday because she needs a rest' meaning 'Mummy's gone away to decide if she wants a divorce or not' violates, rather than flouts, the maxim of manner (39). Here, the speaker intends the hearer to understand something other than the truth, on purpose.

A speaker may also 'infringe' a maxim when they fail to observe a maxim with no intention to deceive, such as where a speaker does not have the linguistic capacity to answer a question. A speaker may also decide to 'opt out' of a maxim such as where a speaker may, for ethical or legal reasons, refuse to say something that breaches a confidentiality agreement they have with someone or is likely to incriminate them in some way (Thomas 1995; Cutting 2008).

According to Grice (1975), the purpose of cooperative principle is to get **effective** communication as informative as clearly. In a conversation a speaker and a hearer are supposed to respond to each other in their turn with the needed information that benefits both of them. By giving the required information, they can understand each other's utterances. By conforming to cooperative principle and its maxims, the speaker allows the hearer to draw assumptions about the speaker's intentions. Thereafter, cooperative principle is widely applied to exploiting both written and spoken texts. Nevertheless, people sometimes may not fulfill these maxims and seem to disobey them in a certain context. Grice (cited in Cutting, 2002, p. 40) says that when the speaker does not fulfill the maxims, the speaker is said to "violate" them.

Violation is a condition where the speaker does not purposefully fulfill certain maxims for some other purposes. Grice notices that violation of his maxims takes place when the speaker intentionally refrains from applying maxims in their conversation. Scholars have fully discussed diverse reasons of violation of maxims. Grice (1975: 49) underlines that when the speaker refrains from applying his maxims, the speaker is "liable to mislead" their counterparts in conversation. Goffman (2008: 17) says that the speaker does not abide by Gricean maxims in order to save face. Chirstoffersen (2005) also argues that in real life situation, people violate the maxims for different reasons. Khosarvzadeh and Sadehvandi (2011: 122-123) say that the speaker violates Grice's maxims in order to cause misunderstandings on their participants' part to achieve some other purposes, for example to please counterpart, evade discussion, avoid unpleasant condition, and express feelings.

Until now, Grice's cooperative principle has been widely employed to do discourse analysis including movie dialogues, literature, legal documents, novel dialogues and business negotiation etc. Grice (1989: 26) clearly states "Make your conversational contribution such as is required, at the stage at which it occurs, by the accepted purpose or direction of the talk exchange in which you are engaged". Besides this requirement, other parameters in the field of ESP such as communication context, disciplinary requirements, professional practice and institutional culture also become crucial.

SPEECH ACTS AND DISCOURSE-III

Politeness, face and discourse

The notion of 'face' comes from Goffman's (1967) work on face and from the English 'folk' notion of face, which ties up with notions of being embarrassed, humiliated or 'losing face' (Brown and Levinson 1987). Politeness and face are important for understanding why people choose to say things in a particular way in spoken and written discourse. Politeness principles and cooperative principles, however, are often in conflict with each other. There are also situations in which one principle might become more important than another. In an emergency, for example, there is less need to be polite than, say, in a normal situation.

Involvement and independence in spoken and written discourse

Two further issues in discussions of face and politeness are the notions of *involvement* and *independence* (Scollon and Wong-Scollon 2001). The term involvement refers to the need people have to be involved with others and to show this involvement; that is a person's right and need to be considered a normal, contributing, supporting member of society; in other words, to be treated as a member of a group. We might show this involvement by showing our interest in someone, by agreeing with them, by approving what they are doing or by using in-group identity markers such as given names, or nicknames.

The independence part of face refers to a people right not be dominated by others, not to be imposed on by others and to be able to act with some sense of individuality, or autonomy. We do this, for example, by not presuming other people's needs or interests, by giving people options, by not imposing on other people and by apologizing for interruptions. In order to maintain social relationships people, acknowledge both of these aspects of a person's face at the same time. People

thus aim to build up closeness and rapport with each other, while at the same time trying to avoid being a threat to each other's social distance; that is, maintaining each other's involvement and independence (Scollon and Wong-Scollon 2001).

Choosing a politeness strategy

We draw on a number of considerations when we decide on a choice of politeness strategy. We may consider how socially close or distant we are from our hearer. For example, are we close friends, is the hearer older than I am and are we 'social equals? We may consider how much or how little power the hearer has over us. For example, am I talking to my boss or to my employee, to a policeman, to a service employee or to a judge?

We may also consider how significant what I want is to me, and to the person I am talking to. For example, am I asking for change, for a loan or to borrow a car? We may consider how much emphasis both of us (in our culture or cultures) place on involvement and independence in circumstances like the one we are in. And we may consider whether both of us would have the same answers to these questions (Gee 1993).

Face and politeness across cultures

It is important to point out that the specific nature of face and politeness varies from society to society and from culture to culture. For example, in some cultures the idea of personal space and independence may vary. In some societies, parents have more right to interfere in the domestic affairs of adult children than in others. In some cultures, a bedroom is private and cannot be entered and in others it is not. In some cultures, refusal of an offer may be merely polite (even if to an English speaker a refusal may seem like refusing involvement) and in others the opposite may be true (Cook 1989).

Gu (1990) discusses politeness in relation to Chinese culture while Ide (1982) discusses politeness in Japanese. Gu sees politeness in Chinese not so much in terms of psychological wants, but rather in terms of social norms. Face is threatened he argues, not when someone's needs are not met, but when someone fails to live up to social standards.

(8) Ide sees politeness in Japanese as something which helps to maintain communication. In Japanese politeness is less strategic and more a matter of socially obligatory linguistic choices through which social harmony is achieved (Eelen 2001). It is important to remember, then, that the use of language will very often vary across cultures and in relation to the social realities of these cultures (Leech 2009).

Gift-giving is an example of a politeness strategy that varies across cultures. Brown and Levinson list gift-giving as a positive politeness strategy in English, or in Scollon and Wong-Scollon's (2001) terms an involvement strategy; that is, a strategy by which we show our closeness and rapport with someone else. We may spend a lot of time deciding what to buy for the gift, think about what the person receiving the gift will feel about what we have bought them and what their reaction to our gift might be. In Japanese culture, however, there are times when gift-giving may mean something quite different from this and be more of a social ritual rather than a positive politeness strategy. Japanese have many gift-giving occasions throughout the year that cover many events in Japanese life where gift-giving is more ritual, or an expression of duty. (10) The ways in which people express politeness also differs across cultures. On one occasion I asked

a group of bilingual Japanese/English students how they would ask a friend to close the window if they were in the car with them and they were feeling cold. These students had all lived in an English-speaking country and were fluent in both English and Japanese.

Could you close the window for me?

Can I close the window?

Hey yo, close the window, would you?

This is what they said they would say in Japanese to a Japanese friend:

Isn't it a little chilly?

It's cold don't you think?

I wonder why it's so cold today?

In the Japanese examples none of the students actually mentioned the window. When the instructor asked them about this, one of the students told me that that in Japanese indirectness is a sign of intimacy and is often used between friends as a sign of mutual understanding and friendship. Indirectness, then, is often an involvement, or positive politeness, strategy in Japanese whereas in English it is often an independence, or negative politeness, strategy. The students also told him that in Japanese culture, involvement is much more important than independence. Thus, whereas in English a speaker may weigh up what they are saying in terms of both involvement and independence, a Japanese speaker may give much greater weight to what they are saying in terms of involvement, rather than independence (see Kadar and Mills 2011 for further discussion of politeness in East Asian cultures).

Face-threatening acts

Some acts 'threaten' a person's face. These are called *face-threatening acts*. Often, we use *mitigation devices* (Fraser 1980) in conversations to take the edge off face-threatening acts. One example is the use of a 'pre-sequence' as in the following invitation:

A: Are you doing anything after work? (a pre-sequence) B:

Why are you asking?

A: I thought we might go for a drink. (an indirect speech act) B:

Well, no, nothing in particular. Where would you like to go?

This example also uses an *insertion sequence* in the middle to take the edge off the face threatening act of 'inviting someone out'. We might also use an *off-record speech act* as in:

A: I'm dying for a drink (an off-record invitation)

B: Yes, it's really hot, isn't it? (An off-record rejection of the invitation)

Here, A never actually asked B to go for a drink so doesn't lose any face by being rejected. Equally, B hasn't rejected the invitation on record but simply 'commented' on the weather in their off-record rejection of the invitation.

A person may, equally, feel that their face has been threatened and make this clear to their audience. An example of this is when the US Secretary of State Hilary Clinton on a visit to the Congo in 2009 was asked by a student what her husband thought of the issue she was discussing. (The student actually meant Mr Obama but the translator had mistakenly said Mr Clinton.). In her response 'You want me to tell you what my husband thinks?' she makes it clear that her face had been threatened. She was in the Congo as the Secretary of State, not the wife of the former US president, and the question that she had been asked was inappropriate. This, of course, also led to loss of face for the student, having been reprimanded by the Secretary of State in such a public setting. After the event the student approached Hilary Clinton and explained the mistake. She smiled at the student, rather embarrassedly, and told him not to worry about it (Harnden 2009).

Lecture-06 Pragmatics and the Acquisition of Discourse

DISCOURSE AND PRAGMATICS

What is pragmatics?

Pragmatics is the study of meaning in relation to the context in which a person is speaking or writing. This includes social, situational and textual context. It also includes background knowledge context; that is, what people know about each other and about the world. Pragmatics assumes that when people communicate with each other they normally follow some kind of cooperative principle; that is; they have a shared understanding of how they should cooperate in their communications. The ways in which people do this, however, varies across cultures. What may be a culturally appropriate way of saying or doing something in one culture may not be the same in another culture. The study of this use of language across cultures is called *cross-cultural pragmatics*.

Paltridge (2012) defines pragmatics as the study of how the meaning of spoken and written discourse is related to the context in which that speech and writing occurs. Context here is taken to be the particular social situation that the discourse takes place in, the other text or speech it is situated with, and any background knowledge that it relies upon.

One of the foundational concepts in pragmatics is *speech act theory*, which is the idea that words *do things* in the world. Words have a literal meaning that can be analyzed for its truth or falsehood. But words also can be used to effect change in the world, to perform actions. Searle distinguished between these two types of acts as *locutionary* and *illocutionary* acts. And the actual action that is caused by the words is the *perlocutionary* act.

One practical example of this is the act of saying “I do” in a marriage ceremony. The words have a literal meaning, and perform the action of becoming legally married. They are also tied to the social situation in which they occur, the marriage ceremony, their partner’s speech and the speech of the marriage official. This example also highlights how various conditions can influence whether a specific speech act works or not. Austin called these felicity conditions, which Searle interpreted somewhat rigidly as *rules*.

Cutting (2002) believes that pragmatics and discourse analysis have much in common in the sense that both investigate context, text and function. Both fields concentrate on the significance of words in communication and how interlocutors convey more than the words they utilized. Additionally, both of them study discourse and text focusing on how pieces of language become significant and integrated for their users. Furthermore, the two fields are interested in function. For

instance, in order to interpret a piece of discourse such as we are not amusing, pragmatics and discourse analysis will take into consideration the fact that Queen Victoria had been in a long depression, resulted from the death of her husband. Her words were a reply to a joke which her courtiers had just made. Analysts will infer that her intention was to stop them attempting to make her laugh and lift her out of the depression (ibid: 1)

Similarly, Puig (2003) states that the two domains, pragmatics and discourse analysis, move behind the formal description of phrases and concentrate on upper components, for instance, speech acts and conversational turns. Moreover, both approaches investigate context and its structuring. Nevertheless, pragmatics exerts more effort to the identification of the speaker's intention in addition to the recovering of the covert ingredients which the hearer needs to access.

As for the divergence of pragmatics and discourse analysis, Coulthard (1985) says that discourse analysis examines how stretches above the sentence level are knitted together. Moreover, discourse analysis has to depict the construction of suprasentential text or social transaction through forcing a certain apparatus on the data either overtly or covertly.

Language, context and discourse

An understanding of how language functions in context is central to an understanding of the relationship between what is said and what is understood in spoken and written discourse. The *context of situation* means what someone says is, therefore, crucial to understanding and interpreting the meaning of what is being said. This includes the physical context, the social context and the mental worlds and roles of the people involved in the interaction. Each of these impacts on what we say and how other people interpret what we say in spoken and written discourse.

A conversation between two people in a restaurant may mean different things to the actual people speaking, something different to a 'side participant' in the conversation (such as someone sitting next to one of the speakers), and something different to a 'bystander' (such as the waiter) and again something different to someone who may be overhearing the conversation (Verschuere 1999). Equally, a student's assignment written for a law course takes on a different meaning if it is re-typed on the letterhead of a law firm and addressed to a client. The text then takes on the status and function of 'a piece of legal advice' and the reader's interpretation of the text is significantly different from the way in which it would have been read by the student's professor (Freedman 1989). The linguistic context in terms of what has been said and what is yet to be said in the discourse also has an impact on the intended meaning and how someone may interpret this meaning in spoken and written discourse.

There are, then, a number of key aspects of context that are crucial to the production and interpretation of discourse. These are the *situational context* in terms of what people ‘know about what they can see around them’, the *background knowledge context* in terms of what people ‘know about each other and the world’ and the *co-textual context* in terms of what people ‘know about what they have been saying’ (Cutting 2008: 5).

Background knowledge context includes cultural knowledge and interpersonal knowledge. That is, it includes what people know about the world, what they know about various areas of life, what they know about each other (Cutting 2008) and what they know about the norms and expectations of the particular *discourse community*, in which the communication is taking place. Contextual knowledge also includes social, political and cultural understandings that are relevant to the particular communication (Celce-Murcia and Olshtain 2000).

Cross-cultural pragmatics and discourse

The ways in which people perform speech acts, and what they mean by what they say when they perform them, often varies across cultures. One of the Japanese students complained, for example, that he had had work done by a local (English-speaking) builder that was unsatisfactory and no matter how much he pushed the matter he could not get the builder to apologize. On reflection, he realized that this was, in part, due to the different implications that might be drawn from an apology in English as opposed to an apology in Japanese. For the Japanese student, he expected the builder to apologize as a matter of course and he was very disturbed that the builder would not do this.

This did not mean for him, however, that the builder would be taking responsibility for the unsatisfactory work, or that, having apologized, he would then be obliged to do anything about it. In English, he discovered, the apology, for the builder, would mean that he was both taking responsibility for the faulty work and agreeing to do something about it a situation the builder was most likely keen to avoid given the financial, and other, implications this might have had for him. In Japan, the apology would not necessarily have had these implications.

Cross-cultural use of speech acts is commonly referred to as *cross-cultural pragmatics*. As Wierzbicka (2003) points out, different pragmatic norms reflect different cultural values which are, in turn, reflected in what people say and what they intend by what they say in different cultural settings. Wierzbicka gives the example of thanking in Japanese and English. The concepts encoded in the English word *thanks*, she argues, do not really fit Japanese culture. In English, she says, to thank someone means, roughly, to say we feel something good towards them because of something good they have done and we want them to feel good in return. But in Japanese culture with its stress on social hierarchy, moral duty and the repayment of favours, this situation is somewhat different.

Japanese speakers of English, further, may frequently say *sorry* when they mean *thank you*, leading to a completely different interpretation of what they mean, from what they intend to mean (Ide 1998). As Cameron (2001: 74) explains, the act of thanking is an expression of indebtedness in both English and Japanese. In the case of Japanese, however, ‘a debt not yet repaid calls for an apology from the debtor’. Apologizing, thus, for a Japanese speaker is one way of expressing indebtedness, and thanking someone.

Kim (2008) shows how the term *mainhada* can mean both *sorry* and *thanks* in Korean. *Mainhada* is used less often than *sorry* in English, however, as South Koreans often express an apology implicitly or nonverbally. Also, *mainhada* is not the only way of thanking in Korean. If the speaker thinks they are not able to return the benefit they have received from the person they are thanking, they will say *mainhada*. If they think they can return the benefit, however, they will say *gamsahada*. *Mainhada* is also used for requesting in Korean. It is used within a group when the speaker thinks fulfilling the request will be difficult. It is also used with people outside the group to incorporate them into the group but an honorific will be added to the word (i.e. *mainhabnida*) to show particular respect to that person.

THE ACQUISITION OF DISCOURSE

Language function

A **language function** refers to what students do with **language** as they engage with content and interact with others. **Functions** represent the active use of **language** for a specific purpose. **Language forms** deal with the internal grammatical structure of words and phrases as well as the word them. Students use language functions in order to express ideas, communicate with others, and show understanding of content in an academic setting.

In oral language some common functions may include:

- Giving instructions
- Making requests
- Defending an argument

In academic writing we use a range of specific functions in order to communicate ideas clearly. These include:

- Describing processes
- Comparing or contrasting things or ideas
- Classifying objects or ideas

Language forms deal with the internal grammatical structure of words and phrases as well as the word them. When one compares boy and boys, for example, or man and men, he or she is considering the relationship between different language forms or structures. Language forms also include cross curricular academic vocabulary - words or phrases frequently used across different content areas. **Cross curricular academic vocabulary words typically describe or are related to academic processes and may include:**

- Verbs (e.g., hypothesize, analyze)
- Complex prepositions, (e.g., in contrast to, as well as)
- Nouns (e.g., comparison, conclusion, analysis)

(4) While functions address what we do with language, forms are the language structures and vocabulary that are used to support those functions. Language learners need to acquire both the functions (uses/purposes) and the forms (structures + cross-curricular vocabulary) that make up the English language in order to reach higher levels of proficiency. Teachers also need to understand the language demands of a task as they relate to both function and form in order to best support students' language development.

Productive Rules

It means a **discourse** in which the participants pay close attention to and understand the other perspective, and respond to the other side by providing pieces of evidences rather than ignoring them. I believe that for a discourse to be “productive”, the people involved in the discourse need to be respectful of each other’s ideas and listen to what the participants have to say. A productive discourse does not mean that the participants have to come to an agreement.

It also means that a discourse is productive when the participants pay close attention and understand the other perspective, and respond to the other side by providing pieces of evidences rather than ignoring them. Moreover, a debate is productive when the participants are not sidetracked by misunderstandings. I think that when a discourse is taking place, participants need to choose their words carefully to clearly explain their position. Instead of trying to personally attack the other side, the participant should work to build a strong argument to prove their point.

Discourse is often seen as unproductive because people get carried away by emotions or do not respect the other participants. Instead of trying to understand the other side, people focus more on themselves to prove their own argument. Additionally, many people believe that in a discourse, people should come to an agreement. They think that one side has to win another. However, this is not true for a productive discourse. There does not have to be a consensus reached and a resolution does not represent a productive debate.

Second Language Acquisition

Discourse refers to the set of norms, preferences and expectations relating language to context, which language users draw on and modify in producing and making sense out of language in context. Discourse knowledge allows language users to produce and interpret discourse structures such as verbal acts (e.g., requests, offers), conversational sequences (such as question-answer), activities (such as storytelling and arguing), and communicative styles (such as women’s speech).

Competent language users know the formal characteristics of these structures, the alternative ways of forming particular structures, and the contexts in which particular discourse structure are preferred and expected. For example, competent communicators know the range of linguistic structures which can be used to ask for things in particular social circumstances.

Discourse knowledge relates language to psychological as well as social contexts. Competent language users vary language according to their perception of cognitive states of interlocutors. Every language has linguistic structures which elicit others’ attention (or heighten attention to something expressed) and which distinguish old from new information (information interlocutors presume they already know). Address terms, emphatic particles, pitch, voice quality and repetition are attention getting devices. Similarly, certain determiners, pronouns and word order mark old and new information.

Psychological context includes perceived emotion. Language throughout the world has linguistic resources for converting emotion. In Thai and Japanese, for example, passive voice indicates negative affect towards a proposition. In other languages, affixes, particles, quantifiers, tense aspect marking, word order and intonation carry emotional meaning. Competent language users know which structures convey affective meaning and norms, preferences and expectations otherwise surrounding their use.

In the course of experiencing language in context, children come to know how language varies with context, how it sometimes reflects context and sometimes creates contexts. They come to know how to use language as a tool to elicit attention, to establish relationships and identities, to perform social actions and to express certain stances. All this the part of what constitutes being a speaker of a language. Acquiring a second language entails discourse knowledge surrounding the use of that language. In many cases, second language acquisition may be grammatically competent but their discourse competence pauses, as acquirers map norms, preferences and expectations surrounding their first language on to second language situations. Second language acquisition may have different norms from native speakers for greetings, asking, essay-writing, interviewing, storytelling, instructing or arguing; for displaying interest, fear, concern, pleasure or emotional intensity. Discrepancies between non- native and native discourse competence have both personal and economic consequences when interlocutors misunderstand the contextual meanings of one another's language behavior.

Social Acts. All children come to know that language is a tool for not only representing the world but constituting and changing the world as well. Children use linguistic structures as resources for carrying out a range of tasks such as asking questions and making requests, offers and promises. They also develop understandings of what others are trying to accomplish with their words and adjust their subsequent linguistic acts accordingly, e.g. accepting/rejecting offers, assessing announcements, agreeing/disagreeing, with assertions, satisfying/dissatisfying requests, and answering questions.

Affect. Affect is expressed emotion, including displays of moods attitudes, dispositions and feelings. As noted earlier early in their development, children display affect and interpret the affective displays of others. Before using words, children vary intonational contours and voice quality to indicate affect. At the single word stage, children perform a variety of affect loaded speech acts, such greetings, begging, teasing, cursing and refusing; and in certain speech communities, use affect- marked pronouns and affixes, morphological particles and respect vocabulary to display sympathy, anger, deference among

CHILD DISCOURSE

Placing Child Discourse in a Tradition

In the years since Ervin-Tripp and Mitchell-Kernan published the first book on child discourse (Ervin-Tripp and Mitchell-Kernan 1977), the field has moved through a series of changes. By turning to a discourse-centered approach, researchers have been able to shift focus, placing the child's learning process and productive pragmatic use at the center of their concern.

The early discourse approach developed as a counter to traditional language acquisition studies, which centered on discovering how children could overcome the limitations of their incomplete grammatical system. Such studies made judgments of the child's ability to approximate to the adult norm based on direct elicitation in experimental settings. The impact of *Child Discourse* (Ervin-Tripp and Mitchell-Kernan 1977), along with *Developmental Pragmatics* (Ochs and Schieffelin 1979), began a movement toward situationally embedded activities as the domain of child language studies. Researchers' interests began to turn away from exclusively psycholinguistic concerns with factors underlying the development of formal structures to concentrate on contextually situated learning. 3

The discourse focus looked at children in naturally occurring settings and activities, and paid attention to their speech and communicative practice in everyday situations (Cook-Gumperz and Gumperz 1976). This research went beyond linguistic competence to what became known as the child's acquisition of communicative competence, which is seen as the knowledge that underlies socially appropriate speech. This approach was influenced by ethnography of communication (which saw communicative competence as a contrastive concept to the Chomskyan notion of linguistic competence), and involved theories of sociolinguistics, speech act usage, and conversational analysis. Although little conversational analytic work was done at that time, by the late 1970s and 1980s there was a growing interest in children's conversational competence (McTear 1985; Ochs and Schieffelin 1979).

The ethnographic approach to acquisition served to refocus studies of children's acquisition to the problem of how language learners are able to be participating members of a social group by

acquiring social and linguistic skills necessary for interaction. The term *language socialization* came to represent this new focus. As Schieffelin and Ochs (1986), who provided one of the first collections to address these concerns, commented: language socialization involves “both socialization through language and socialization to use language” (1986: 2). The focus on language-mediated interactions as the mechanism of production–reproduction is the unique contribution of language socialization to the core problem of how societies continue. In research taking this perspective (e.g., Heath 1983), both the sociocultural contexts of speaking, and the ways of speaking within specifically defined speech events of a social group or society, became primary research sites. In contrast to earlier studies of language acquisition, which focused on the acquisition of grammatical patterns, and later studies, which looked at children’s speech acts, the new approach looked at speaking embedded in specific interactive situations and at the communicative, as distinct from linguistic, competence that these practices revealed (Hymes 1962).

Child discourse studies have also broadened to encompass institutional settings and culturally heterogeneous settings. Second, child discourse studies began to address the question, what does it mean socially and psychologically for the child to have an ever-increasing linguistic control over her or his social environment and self-awareness? With a rising interest in Conversation Analysis (e.g., Sacks, Schegloff, and Jefferson 1974) in the past 15 years or so, this question has become refocused somewhat. Rather than looking only for linguistic markers of children’s developing reflexivity and self-awareness, child discourse studies now also look at speakers’ multimodal *displays* of affect and attention in the moment, including those of the children themselves, and how these displays become integrated into (and themselves influence) unfolding sequences of adult-child interaction (e.g., Goodwin, Cekaite, and Goodwin 2012).

Thirdly, child discourse studies had come to focus on sociolinguistic practices and on events that were meaningful from children’s own point of view, such as games, teasing rituals, and pretend play routines. They explored children’s developing competence in their own peer world. In the past 10 years or so, there has been a proliferation of studies of children socializing children, many of these in culturally and linguistically heterogeneous settings resulting from transnational movements and postcolonial societal changes (e.g., see Goodwin and Kyratzis 2007, 2012, 2014; Kyratzis 2004 for prior reviews).

We will review some of the most relevant studies in two main situational domains: adult–child discourse and child–child discourse. Under adult–child discourse, we review studies in pragmatics of family life, personhood, and self-identity (where space is made for the child to begin to reflect on her or his own experience), and morality in the talk of everyday life (such as dinner-table narratives, politeness routines, and other adult–child exchanges). Under child–child discourse, we review studies of disputes, teasing, and gossip events among older children and of pretend play among younger children.

Adult–Child Discourse

The world of the family, with its often-subtle distinctions of power and authority, provides children with their earliest learning experiences of how verbal communication can affect interpersonal relationships. By participating in family life, children gain practical experience of family dynamics and how talk is used to control, to persuade, or to conceal real intentions. Family discourse, particularly at mealtimes and on other ceremonial occasions, provides the essential testing-ground where children hone their skills as communicators. It is in the family group that children listen to and learn to construct narratives, tales that reflect past and future events (Heath 1983).

And it is through the pragmatic conventions of daily conversations that the relative positioning of family members is constructed as part of daily discursive practice. In family discussion, children are able to observe how talk reflects, and at times constructs, status relationships of gender, age, and power by the ways people talk to each other and about each other. It is also through family discussion that children first become aware of relationships in a world beyond the family.

Ervin-Tripp, focusing on the pragmatic conventions of family talk, provides important insights into the linguistic means by which interpersonal relationships are negotiated through the daily activity of family talk. Her analysis concentrates specifically on the speech acts or activities, such as requests, directives, greetings and politeness expressions, jokes, and complaints that demonstrate control of one person over another. In a paper on “Language and power in the family,” Ervin-Tripp, O’Connor, and Rosenberg (1984: 119) point out the need to distinguish between effective power, “the ability in a face-to-face interaction to get compliance from an addressee,” and esteem, “as the right to receive verbal deference.”

In other words, there is not a direct correspondence between descriptors of status and everyday verbal behavior. Rather, by looking at everyday discourse, we become aware of the variety of factors of context, interactants, social position, and/or emotional involvement, as well as activity scene, that all enter into choices of verbal strategies, and on a situation-specific basis determine pragmatic choice.

Child–Child Discourse

As noted, Child Discourse (Ervin-Tripp and Mitchell-Kernan 1977) along with Developmental pragmatics (Ochs and Schieffelin 1979) began a new movement in child language research, one of looking at situationally embedded activities organized by children themselves as the domain of child language studies and studies of the acquisition of communicative competence. Several studies noted the ingenuity of children in making use of repetition, sound play, and other aspects of “attuned poetic performance” (Cekaite *et al.* 2014: 7; de León 2007; Garvey 1977) in their play and games.

However, as described by Schieffelin and Ochs (1996), in addition to looking at “children’s skill to use language,” the research began to focus on “relating children’s knowledge and performance to the social and cultural structures, and ideologies that give meaning and identity to a community” (1996: 252), in this case, to children’s “own peer- [or sibling-kin] group communities” (Goodwin and Kyratzis 2012: 381). Several influential *ethnographic* studies of children’s peer group interactions (e.g., Corsaro 1985; Eckert 1987; Eder 1995; Goodwin 1980, 1990, 2006; Rampton 1995; Thorne 1993) began to be conducted in this vein and illustrated how groups of children and teens in neighborhoods, school yards, and classrooms used social practices within such genres as arguments, songs, rhymes, pretend play, gossip stories, teasing, ritual abuse, jokes, and riddles, and also sanctioning of one another (Goodwin 2006: 22–3; Opie and Opie 1959), to negotiate belonging, inclusion, shared norms and meaning, and social hierarchy within the peer group. Many additional ethnographic studies followed, especially from the 1990s onward.

Many studies of older children, middle school-aged and beyond, have looked at disputes, teasing, and gossip events among peers, as these provide a means for children to negotiate alignments and hierarchy within the peer group. Younger children use pretend play and song games as venues to negotiate inclusion and peer group hierarchy. Studies of children’s’ and teens’ disputes, teasing, gossip stories, song games, and pretend play have been reviewed recently in two large literature reviews (Goodwin and Kyratzis 2012, 2014), to which the reader is referred. However, we present a review of a small number of these studies here, and then draw some conclusions about what recent child discourse research tells us about how children participate in the negotiation of norms and moral order across both adult–child and child–child interactions.

Lecture-07 Discourse: Gender, Racism and Religion

DISCOURSE AND GENDER

Gender Differences as Discursive Strategies

The study of discourse and gender is an interdisciplinary endeavor undertaken by scholars in linguistics, anthropology, communications, social psychology, education, literature, and other disciplines. At its heart is a focus on, first, the linguistic resources individuals draw on to present themselves as gendered beings in relation to other aspects of the self within the constraints of their communities, more or less conforming to or resisting these constraints; and, second, the discursive construction of gender and its many components through words and images. Given the complexity of gender as a social phenomenon, the study of gender and discourse requires attention to cultural influences that favor gendered ways of speaking and of negotiating both connection and power; the fluidity of gender as a performance and the societal constraints on gender performances; and the multiple interrelations among gender, discourse, and social meaning.

The early focus on women's speech, sex discrimination through language, and unequal power relations was maintained in two influential edited volumes: McConnell-Ginet, Borker, and Furman's *Women and Language in Literature and Society* (1980) and Thorne, Kramarae, and Henley's *Language, Gender and Society* (1983). However, several chapters in these volumes represent another major strand of research in discourse and gender, influenced by anthropological linguist John Gumperz and sociologist Erving Goffman. Ethnographic work influenced by Goffman explores gender and discourse as a component of social interaction. Drawing on

Goffman's (1967) concept of face the individual's public "image of self," which consists of "approved social attributes" that must be constantly maintained and protected and Lakoff's (1973) theory of politeness. Brown (1980) claim that women are more polite because they are "culturally demoted to an inferior status relative to men".

Identity and Discourses of Gender

Discourse is usually defined as the relationship between language and its real-world context. Many researchers and theorists relate discourse specifically to power structures in a given society, and this is the area where there is the most overlap between gender and discourse. Approaches to gender and discourse research may analyze the way language reflects or influences gender stereotypes, or they may discuss the differences between how men and women use language.

Much use of the word discourse in the late 20th and early 21st centuries was influenced by the work of the French philosopher Michel Foucault, who defined the use of language and other sign systems as a means to control people's actions. Drawing on Foucault's theories, many researchers have analyzed gender in relation to existing social and cultural power structures. Some theorists argue that the way language is used re-enforces existing power structures, while others claim that discourse simply reflects the existing state of affairs. The relationship between power and discourse may also be viewed as cyclical or mutually re-enforcing: social structures influence language, and language influences social structures. Foucaultian approaches to gender and discourse tend to focus on the relationship between gender and power.

Some research focuses on the difference between how men and women are portrayed in discourse. For instance, some studies of gender and discourse analyze the way men and women are viewed in public communication, such as advertising or TV. The goal of such analysis is often to reveal the unspoken assumptions about gender interactions and the underlying power structures that these interactions reveal.

On the other hand, a significant portion of gender discourse studies analyzes the difference between how women and men themselves use language. These types of studies almost always concentrate on a particular culture or sub-culture. For example, one study of Malagasy-speaking people revealed women's speech to be more direct in that cultural context, while men's speech was more round-about. This study provoked debate about the types of power wielded when each style of communication was used.

Across many different cultures, women's speech styles are often found to have power within domestic circumstances, while men's speech is believed to be more powerful in public settings. Most theorists believe that this difference is due primarily to the way boys and girls are socialized from a young age, rather than from innate biological differences between the sexes. They may disagree, however, about whether these differences constitute a form of societal oppression of women. Those who identify as gender-egalitarian or gender-liberal may argue that these differences should not exist. On the other hand, some people, such as difference feminists, would

respond that although the power assigned to women in society is of a different type than that assigned to men, it is not an inherently unequal system.

Language and Gender Online

Many of the themes addressed in research focusing on women's and men's spoken discourse have been identified in computer-mediated discourse. Other patterns of gender and discourse are emerging in this context as well. Scholars in the field of language and gender were among the first to examine Computer-Mediated Communication (CMC). Susan Herring was a innovator in this area and, together with her students and colleagues, has continued to be the major researcher in it. In an overview of CMC research published between 1989 and 2013, Herring and Stoerger (2014) demonstrate that widespread predictions that gender would be invisible online, and therefore gender-related differences and inequalities would disappear, were not borne out.

Summarizing the findings of early research on discussion lists and newsgroups which considered the quantity of talk and the stances that males and females take up in relation to their debaters, they note that women have a habit to post shorter messages and were more likely to "qualify and justify their statements, apologize, express appreciation, support others, and in general, adopt an 'aligned' stance toward their debaters". In contrast, men have a habit to post comparatively longer messages, were more likely to "begin and close discussions in mixed-sex groups, assert opinions strongly as 'facts', challenge others, use simple language and in general adopt an argumentative stance toward their debaters".

The prediction indeed, the hope that CMC would be gender-neutral grew out of the assumption that it would be anonymous. The trend, however, has been in the opposite direction. Recent research has continued to document that online discourse tends to replicate gender related patterns that had previously been observed in spoken interaction, as well as the important insight that gender-related patterns vary by context. It is essential, therefore, to pay attention to the type and purpose of online discourse in order to get an accurate understanding of the relationship between gender and online discourse.

For example, the early question of who talks more, women or men, was answered differently depending on whether one examined what Tannen (1990) dubbed private or public speaking: women were found to talk more at home but less at meetings. Just so, Herring and Stoerger report that researchers looking at online discourse have observed that gender differences in participation vary by online context: women outnumber and are more active than men on social networking sites such as Facebook, Twitter etc. While men participate more frequently on music-sharing sites, the professional social networking sites LinkedIn, and the social news website.

Furthermore, just as studies of spoken conversation found that men's contributions at meetings are more often taken up by the group, Kelly (2012) found that men's tweets are retweeted more often

than women's, especially by men, even though women post more on Twitter, and Herring *et al.* (2004) found that men's blogs are linked to and reported on in the mass media more often than women's blogs. This is not to say that men's online discourse always receives more attention; women may receive more attention, but, unfortunately, of a less desirable kind: Harding (2007) observes that women receive respectively more online harassment, while Marwick (2013) notes that they are subjected to more threatening language when they speak up on social media sites.

DISCOURSE AND RACISM

Concepts of "Race" and "Racism"

In attempting to define "race", Dobzhansky (1946) states that:

"Races are defined as populations differing in the incidence of certain genes but actually exchanging or potentially able to exchange genes across the boundary (usually geographic) that separates them." Race is considered as a biological, genetically determined concept.

However, this scientific concept has been increasingly challenged. First, it has been argued that the continued use of the term 'race' intensifies the problems of racism. As a result, some African Americans want to substitute color or 'colorism' because skin color is the most obvious sign of difference. Second, others challenge race from the perspective of the increased 'hybridity' (Bhabha, 1994) or racial mixing brought about by increasing globalization and the migration of people. In this context identity becomes very subjective especially because racism rejects such people their white parentage or heritage. Since mixed race persons are defined by their darker skin color not their ethnicity the concept of 'race' loses much of its validity. Lastly, the most important challenge to the use of the concept of race is, however that it is not biological difference as such that creates racism but its social construction.

Despite these challenges the concept of race is still useful mainly because it promotes racism which is what the Ontario Human Rights Commission (OHRC) and anti-racists the world over is trying to control. 'Race' is a biological reality which leads to the perception of difference which leads to racism. The theoretical foundations of the relationship between race and the construction of racism are complex and have important policy implications.

Types	Manifestations
Individual	Attitudes; everyday behavior
Institutional/systemic system	Policies and practices of an organization; rules woven into a social
Cultural/ideological	Values embedded in dominant culture

(From Henry, Tator, et. al. *The Colour of Democracy: Racism in Canadian Society*. 2002, Harcourt, Toronto. 3rd edition in press)

We consider racism to be discrimination against racialized social groups or racialized imagined communities. Racism includes the following practices and processes in which discourse plays a crucial role.

- Two types of differences, that is, natural and cultural differences, are marked and stereotypically generalized, as well as polarized, in order to construct homogenous groups or communities of persons (marking of natural and cultural differences, group internal homogenization, and polarization).

These two types of differences are connected via the naturalization of cultural differences. This implies that fictitious or real, usually visible, more or less unchangeable features are linked as allegedly natural traits with social, cultural, or mental characteristics (naturalization of cultural differences).

- This naturalizing social construction is accompanied by the hierarchization and negative evaluation of the racialized other (hierarchization and negative evaluation).
- Naturalized hierarchization and negative evaluation subsequently serve to justify and legitimize power differences, (economic) exploitation and various practices of social as well as political exclusion (Priester 2003).

Socio-cognitive approach to racism

Discourse Studies as a cross discipline emerged in all the humanities and social sciences 50 years ago in the USA and various European countries, but initially focused mostly on formal aspects of text and talk: text grammar, semantic coherence and narrative and argumentation structures. A more sociopolitical orientation, Critical Discourse Studies (CDS), focused on forms of discursive power abuse, was initiated only in the 1980s, but since then has become very popular, for instance in the study of political discourse, media discourse and phenomena such as racism and sexism. Most forms of CDS establish direct links between discourse structures and social structures.

In a **socio-cognitive approach** this relation is mediated by cognitive structures, the only way heterogeneous discourse structures and social structures can be theoretically linked, for instance, by personal mental models and socially shared knowledge, attitudes and ideologies. Hence, a critical study of discourse must be based on such a socio-cognitive theory in order to be able to describe and explain the discursive reproduction of social domination, as well as the resistance against this domination.

Since the 1980s, social cognitive models have remained the most dominant and influential accounts of racial bias. These have their origins in Gordon Allport's seminal work, *The Nature of Prejudice* (1954). Allport's definition of prejudice as "an antipathy based upon a faulty and inflexible generalization" (1954) about a social group and its members, emphasizes the role that

social categorization and stereotyping play as perceptual-cognitive processes that underlie racial bias.

Categorizing people into their respective group memberships (such as race, gender, age) is seen to be driven primarily by our limited cognitive capacity and thereby our need to simplify the overwhelming amount of stimulus information we receive and need to process quickly and efficiently.

This group-based or category-based perception is seen as distorting reality because people are not viewed as individuals in their own right but rather as prototypical group members. In turn, this leads to stereotyping, which recent social cognition research suggests can occur automatically and outside conscious awareness (Nosek, Hawkins & Frazier 2011). Stereotyping of course is just one step away from prejudice literally prejudging someone based solely on their group membership. This inextricable relationship between categorization, stereotyping and prejudice therefore is central to social cognition models of prejudice. Social cognition models have been criticized for normalizing prejudice and racism as inevitable products of our cognitive hard-wiring. Critics have also argued that by treating racial categories and racial categorization as natural rather than social and ideological constructs, social cognition models themselves reproduce subtle and implicit racism in psychology (Hopkins, Levine & Reicher, 1997).

Prejudices and stereotypes

Prejudice is defined as a form of social cognition shared by the members of dominant in-groups. This interdisciplinary problem is discussed against the background of recent developments in cognitive psychology, social psychology and microsociology about the nature of social information processing and the cognitive representation of groups, intergroup episodes and social conflict. The cognitive analysis of social representations is carried out in terms of strategies for the management of social information about groups, and presupposes a distinction between on the one hand situation models and on the other hand more general group schemata (attitudes) in memory.

Strategies are the processes that use these beliefs in a flexible and context-sensitive way, both in understanding and in the planning and execution of prejudiced discourse and interaction. It is shown that large part of the cognitive processes involved have a social nature. In particular ethnic prejudice, formulated in terms of attitude schemata about minority groups, is categorically organized in terms of their major social functions: dominance, differentiation, distance, diffusion, diversion or displacement, depersonalization, and the various forms of daily discrimination.

This functional organization of ethnic attitude schemata also displays other forms of information ordering, such as local and global coherence, hierarchical relations, and differentiation into relevant social domains. It is assumed that ethnic groups are strategically represented according to a number of relevant prototypical characteristics: origin and/ or appearance, socio-economic position, cultural norms and values, typical actions and interactions, and attributed personal

properties. Besides the contents and the organization of ethnic group schemata, especially the cognitive strategies for the manipulation of these cognitions appear to be crucial for prejudiced social information processing in concrete situations. These strategies include: irrelevant participant categorization, actualization and use of (negative) prototypical properties of minority members and the evaluation of their actions in terms of these group properties, favoritism in ambiguous situations of in-group members, negative macro proposition formation, confirmation of negative group schemata from incidental models of experience, negative information spreading and displacement across models and group schemata, and in general negative information retrieval.

It is shown that these cognitive strategies correspond to, and are the basis for, social strategies of everyday discrimination (as in discourse, selective negative attention and derogatory treatment, negative attribution, negative expectations, and the maintenance of distance and power). Finally, it is shown how everyday talk exemplifies many of these cognitive and social strategies of prejudice, and how discourse serves various functions in the social diffusion of ethnic attitudes, the sharing of experiences and the formulation of social precepts for the interaction with minorities.

DISCOURSE AND RELIGION

Religious Language

The term "religious language" refers to statements or claims made about God or gods. Here is a typical philosophical problem of religious language. If God is infinite, then words used to describe finite creatures might not adequately describe God. The ambiguity in meaning with respect to the terms predicated of God is the "problem of religious language" or the "problem of naming God." These predications could include divine attributes, properties, or actions.

Religious discourse contains stories, supernatural characters, myth, attractive images and sometimes difficult logic. Therefore, religious texts are filled with metaphor. Metaphors differently interpret the text, "Christ is God and man," The metaphor is constructed to be interpreted in one way rather than another. Relations among words give to fuzziness. Metaphors lead to additional layers of meaning.

Multiplicity of meaning is encoded in the religious texts. Ambiguity is often found in religious texts. The word "God" has many meanings. God is benevolent, or malignant, kind, or cruel, a person or a symbol, etc. Religious contexts can be revealing. Ritual speeches as display a degree of repetition mysterious vocabulary, unusual intonation mark the discourse.

John Du Bois (1996) identified some of the features of Religious language:

- Use of rituals
- Archaic elements
- Euphemism and metaphor
- Semantic opacity
- Unusual fluency
- Magic words

Religious discourse has already been enlightening for us in a narrower sense. Much work on the topic of discourse and religion has focused on the linguistic and discursive characteristics of such practices as rituals, prayers, liturgies, trance, divination, spells, mantra, speaking in tongues, and

other clearly delineated verbal genres. These practices typically involve deliberate and sometimes spectacular departures from “ordinary” communication, and these departures have been used to address issues of general linguistic concern.

Religion as a Cultural System

Geertz (1966) looks to define religion through a cultural lens in an attempt to advance the anthropological study of religion. Geertz observes, and believes, that the anthropological study of religion is stagnant due to a narrow focus on “supreme numbers” such as Freud, Durkheim and Weber. Attempting to trigger off of the great theories of the past Geertz wants to explore the “cultural dimension of religious analysis.”

Geertz has to further explain what he means by “culture” and “religion.” Culture is defined as “a historically transmitted pattern of meanings embodied in symbols,” which is used by humans to “communicate, perpetuate and develop their attitudes toward life.” Religion is then defined as a special system of symbols that does four different things. **Religion:**

- Establishes powerful “moods and motivations” in people
- Formulates a “general order of existence”
- Makes these “conceptions appear as fact”
- Makes these moods and motivations seem “uniquely realistic”

Discourse and religion exploit the extremes of religious practice to unsettle linguistic commonplaces and sharpen understandings of general linguistic and semiotic processes. Narrowing discourse and religion to the study of the characteristics and peculiarities of discursive practices carries risks, however. We too often take for granted what makes these practices religious, which means that we prematurely delimit our object of study and neglect to explain how these practices come to be seen as ‘religious’ and for whom they are so seen. It is now well appreciated that we cannot presume the governess of religion as a category (Asad 1983, 1993; Masuzawa 2005; Tambiah 1995) and simply place discursive practices in it, as if their religious provenance were self-evident and left unchallenged by social actors.

This review addresses two major issues. The first is a fundamental problem for religious practitioners themselves, that of how to communicate with agents, such as gods, spirits, and ancestors, who are immaterial. All sorts of discursive resources, from registers to reported speech, are mobilized in an effort to materialize these agents. The second issue is equally fundamental but often neglected by analysts: it concerns the manner in which discourse gets separated out as ‘religious’ in relation to the secular.

(10) A curiosity of this topic is that the literature is both small – few researchers on discourse would describe what they do as that of “language and religion” or “discourse and religion” – and large. Large, because a massive literature does exist, but this literature is not preoccupied with language use and is scattered across disciplines, not to mention the globe, and has a formidable

time depth. After all, all the major religious traditions familiar to us have had deep and abiding concerns with language, as evidenced by such immense works.

Materializing the Immaterial

Discourse and religion often address a cardinal problem: How does one communicate with incorporeal agent's spirits, gods, ancestors who cannot speak back and make themselves present to allow for "mutual monitoring", intention-reading, and the rest, without which interaction would seem impossible? How are linguistic and discursive resources including relatively marked uses of language mobilized to address this "problem of presence", that of communicating with immaterial interlocutors? As Keane has argued, this problem of presence is fundamental, at least for understandings of religion that turn on the existence of an "invisible order" of experience. This problem has tended to inspire "highly marked and self-conscious uses of linguistic resources" dramatic departures from the way people ordinarily speak. Consider the problem of responsiveness.

Addressivity, as Bakhtin sweepingly put it, means an utterance's "quality of being directed to someone," and as Conversation Analysis (CA) has appreciated, this is fundamental to human interaction. The CA notion of "recipient design" refers to the "multitude of respects in which the talk by a party in a conversation is constructed or designed in ways which display an orientation and sensitivity to the particular other(s) who are the co-participants", but what can one do when the co-participants aren't sensorially *there*? One may hail and entreat a deity or ancestral spirit with the aid of a proper name, reverential epithet and address term, vocative case marker and the like but how can one demonstrate, to others and even to oneself, that one is "communicating" and that one has received a response?

One basic solution is to resolve the participant role of "speaker" into multiple roles, so that one can play many parts, as it were.

For this feat represented speech is indispensable. In reporting someone else's speech, one distinguishes (minimally) the "animator" role (the one who physically produces the message) from "author" (the one responsible for composing the message). Innumerable other roles can be distinguished, too, including what called "principal" (the one committed to the truth of the message), and the "target" (the addressee for whom the message is ultimately meant; on participant roles.